Counter-Corruption Constitutional Provisions

Justin Callais* Jamie Bologna Pavlik† J. P. Bastos‡

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Abstract

Many countries have attempted to fight corruption by writing an anti-corruption commission directly into their constitution, yet there is little systematic evidence on whether this is effective. We study eighteen cases in which a country adopted, or substantially redesigned, a constitutionally backed counter-corruption commission, either through amendment of an existing constitution or as part of a new one. Using the Synthetic Control Method within an event-time framework, we compare each adopting country to a weighted combination of countries that similarly underwent constitutional change without adopting such a commission. We find little evidence that constitutional counter-corruption commissions systematically reduce corruption. Most estimated effects on V-Dem's Political Corruption Index are statistically insignificant, and the few significant effects are modest, sensitive to the choice of donor pool, and point in opposing directions. Effects on investment per capita are similarly mixed. These conclusions hold across alternative donor pools, predictor sets, donor selection based on constitutional characteristics, and a pooled average treatment effect. Constitutional entrenchment alone does not appear to make anti-corruption commissions more effective.

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*Archbridge Institute
†Department of Agricultural and Applied Economics, Texas Tech University
‡University of Austin

1 Introduction

Corruption remains one of the most important obstacles to economic and political development. International organizations, national governments, and civil society groups have devoted substantial resources to combating the misuse of public office for private gain[1], yet corruption continues to undermine public trust and hinder economic performance throughout much of the world.[2] Because corruption often involves the very officials charged with enforcing the law, many countries have sought to strengthen constitutional constraints on government power as a means of limiting opportunities for corruption.

A nation's constitution establishes governance institutions, creating rules that aim to limit self-interested behavior by public officials (Buchanan and Tullock, 1962; Ginsburg, 2012). Constitutions are often viewed as a "higher law" that can structure and constrain ordinary political decision making (Holmes, 2012; Dove and Young, 2021). Constitutional rules might therefore be expected to deter corruption by limiting opportunities for malfeasance and the abuse of power. However, many countries with long-standing constitutions continue to experience high levels of corruption, suggesting that constitutional constraints are not always effective in practice. For example, although Mexico has operated under the same constitution since 1917, it continues to rank poorly on many cross-country measures of corruption (Transparency International, 2024; World Bank, 2024). Thus, the mere existence of a written constitution does not guarantee low levels of corruption.

We study the effectiveness of constitutionally backed counter-corruption commissions, a particular form of an anti-corruption institution that is entrenched in a country's constitution. Anti-corruption agencies themselves are common: by 2020, more than 100 countries had established agencies, commissions, or organizations with an explicit anti-

[1] We are using Rose-Ackerman's definition of corruption.

[2] James Wolfensohn referred to corruption as a cancer in his 1996 address to the World Bank's Board of Governors and made fighting corruption a central focus of the Bank's agenda. Likewise, other major international development agencies launched their own anticorruption campaigns around the same period: e.g., the Organization for Economic Development and Cooperation's Anti-Bribery Convention (1997), the United Nations Convention Against Corruption (2003), and the African Union Convention on Preventing and Combating Corruption (2003).

corruption mandate (French Anti-Corruption Agency (AFA), 2020). However, their effectiveness varies considerably because agencies differ in their authority, independence, resources, and political support (De Sousa, 2010). And, more importantly for our paper, constitutionally backed anti-corruption agencies are relatively rare. Only 29 countries have ever adopted a counter-corruption commission within their constitution (Elkins and Ginsburg, 2025), with many of these commissions currently inactive.

Constitutional entrenchment may strengthen anti-corruption institutions. By embedding a commission into the nation's supreme law, reformers may insulate it from political pressure. Constitutional status may also enhance the credibility of the existing regime by signaling a long-term commitment to anti-corruption efforts, and by providing a focal point for broader accountability reforms. To the extent that constitutional protections increase institutional independence and enforcement capacity, constitutionally backed commissions may reduce corruption.

However, constitutionalization may have little practical effect. Formal constitutional provisions do not necessarily translate into effective enforcement, particularly where governments fail to provide adequate resources, autonomy, or political support. Indeed, successful anti-corruption commissions typically operate alongside broader institutional complements, such as judicial independence and credible enforcement mechanisms (Quah, 2013). In such settings, constitutional commissions may function primarily as symbolic commitments to reform rather than meaningful constraints on political actors. Furthermore, if symbolic oversight substitutes for genuine monitoring by civil society, courts, or other accountability institutions, corruption may persist or even worsen despite the existence of a constitutional commission.

To evaluate whether constitutional counter-corruption commissions reduce corruption, we first identify all *new* constitutional adoptions of such provisions using the Comparative Constitutions Project (Elkins and Ginsburg, 2025). Although 29 countries have included such provisions within a constitution at some point in their history, many did so only briefly. After applying our case selection criteria, we identify eighteen adoptions across

fourteen countries that can be meaningfully studied. These are the cases examined in this paper.[3]

Three of these commissions were introduced through constitutional amendment while the broader constitutional framework remained largely unchanged: Nepal (1975), Zimbabwe (2000), and Namibia (2010). The remaining adoptions occurred as part of entirely new constitutions. These include three cases in the Americas (Ecuador 1998, Ecuador 2008, and Trinidad and Tobago 1976), three in the Middle East and North Africa (Afghanistan 2004, Egypt 2012, and Morocco 2011), three in South Asia (Bhutan 2005, Maldives 2008, and Nepal 1990), and six in Sub-Saharan Africa (Central African Republic 2016, Eswatini 2005, Kenya 2010, Zambia 1973, Zambia 1991, and Zimbabwe 2013). Several countries appear more than once as treatments in our sample (Nepal, Ecuador, Zambia, and Zimbabwe). In each instance, a counter-corruption commission already existed, but the subsequent constitutional change substantially altered the design or authority of the counter-corruption commission, making the new adoption a distinct intervention.

The distinction between constitutional amendments and wholesale constitutional replacement is conceptually important. New constitutions typically introduce numerous institutional reforms simultaneously, making it difficult to isolate the effects of any single provision. Constitutional amendments, while they may also contain multiple changes, are generally more focused and therefore provide a cleaner setting for evaluating the role of a counter-corruption commission. Consequently, we devote more attention to the amendment cases throughout the paper. However, all eighteen cases share a common feature: each represents a constitutional effort to combat corruption through the creation, recognition, or substantial redesign of a specialized anti-corruption commission. Our objective is therefore not to explain the experience of any individual country, but rather to assess whether constitutional reforms containing counter-corruption directives are associated with systematic changes in corruption across a diverse set of constitutional contexts.

[3]We describe our case selection process in detail in Section 2.1.

To evaluate this question, we employ the Synthetic Control Method (Abadie, 2021). We estimate a separate synthetic control for each constitutional reform and then examine whether any consistent patterns emerge across cases. Because constitutional adoptions occur in different countries and years, all cases are analyzed relative to the year of constitutional change. This event-time framework allows us to compare corruption trajectories before and after constitutional reforms while accounting for the fact that the reforms occurred in very different historical settings. Section 3 describes the donor selection procedure and empirical strategy in detail.

The eighteen cases studied in this paper differ substantially. A traditional synthetic control analysis would devote considerable attention to the institutional and political details of each. Our objective, however, is not to explain individual country trajectories but rather to assess whether constitutional counter-corruption commissions are associated with any systematic changes in corruption. To do so, we rely primarily on the Varieties of Democracy (V-Dem 16.0) Political Corruption Index, which provides consistent coverage across all countries and years in our sample.[4] We also examine investment per capita from the Penn World Table (PWT Version 11.0) as an indirect proxy for corruption control.[5]

Across all cases, we find no clear pattern of either corruption control improvement *or* deterioration following the adoption of a constitutionally entrenched counter-corruption commission. Most estimated effects are statistically insignificant, and the few significant estimates are modest in magnitude and point in opposing directions. For example, Namibia's 2010 amendment appears to reduce corruption relative to its synthetic control. However, this result is not especially convincing. When Namibia is compared to a narrower donor pool that includes only stable constitutional environments, the estimated effect becomes much smaller. Zimbabwe's 2000 amendment shows a similar lack

[4]Alternative indices such as the International Country Risk Guide's measure, the World Bank's Control of Corruption measure, or Transparency International's Corruption Perceptions Index are only available in more recent periods and would thus exclude many of the cases (both treatment and donor) included in this paper.

[5]There is now substantial research citing corruption as an important impediment to investment. See Campos et al. (1999); Habib and Zurawicki (2001); Cieślik and Goczek (2018); Mahmood and Pavlik (2025) for examples.

of robustness. Control of corruption falls below the synthetic control (corruption worsens) in the stable-constitution donor pool, but the gap is small and insignificant in the baseline pool. Most effects show no systematic pattern in either direction. Pooling the eighteen cases into a single average treatment effect likewise shows no significant effect on corruption.

Taken together, these results provide little evidence that constitutionally backed counter-corruption commissions systematically impact corruption. If anything, the estimates tilt slightly toward improved corruption control and higher investment, but these patterns are neither robust nor substantively large. The overall conclusion therefore points to a null effect: constitutional entrenchment of a counter-corruption commission does not appear, on average, to meaningfully alter corruption outcomes.

These findings contribute to a small but growing cross-country literature examining the relationship between constitutions and corruption. Pavlik et al. (2023) study whether constitutional length affects corruption by identifying five cases in which a constitution's word count increased by more than 50 percent. The authors argue that longer constitutions could either facilitate corruption by creating additional opportunities for rent-seeking or reduce corruption by imposing additional constraints on political actors. Overall, they find little evidence that constitutional length systematically affects corruption in either direction. Similarly, Pavlik and Young (2025) focus on the constitution-making process rather than constitutional content, finding that public participation modestly reduces judicial corruption but has little effect on corruption more broadly. Our study shifts attention from constitutional length and constitution-making procedures to a specific constitutional institution aiming to combat corruption: counter-corruption commissions. Despite the more targeted nature of this intervention, we reach a similar conclusion. Across a diverse set of countries and constitutional reforms, there is little evidence that constitutionally entrenching a counter-corruption commission systematically improves corruption outcomes.

The remainder of this paper proceeds as follows. Section 2 describes the constitutional

counter-corruption commissions included in our sample and discusses the case selection process. Section 3 outlines the empirical strategy. Section 4 presents and discusses the results. Section 5 concludes.

2 The Rise of Counter-Corruption Commissions

According to Version 5 of the Comparative Constitutions Project, 29 countries have adopted constitutional provisions establishing counter-corruption commissions. Most adoptions occurred after 1990, and while these provisions appear across all regions of the world, they are somewhat more concentrated in Africa. Our analysis focuses on eighteen commission adoptions across fourteen countries. The remainder of this section describes the construction of our study sample and summarizes the constitutional provisions contained in the analyzed cases.

2.1 Sample Selection

Even though 29 countries have adopted constitutional provisions establishing counter-corruption commissions, not all cases are suitable for analysis. We summarize why cases get dropped and how we arrived at our final sample here.

First, some provisions remained in force only briefly or experienced significant breaks in existence. This includes China's 1914 adoption that lasted only one year, and the Democratic Republic of the Congo's 2003 provision that was removed following the adoption of a new Constitution in 2005. Honduras maintained a counter-corruption provision for five years (1982–1987), but it was suspended in 1988 and 1989 before being reinstated. Moldova's post-Soviet provision lasted only from 1991 to 1993. Nigeria experienced two brief episodes with a counter-corruption provision (1978–1982 and 1989–1992). Finally, Thailand's 1997 provision remained in force until 2005 and intermittently thereafter, but repeated constitutional suspensions and reinstatements complicate the identification of a clear treatment period.

Second, some adoptions of counter-corruption provisions are too recent to expect meaningful anti-corruption effects. For example, Algeria established the *High Authority for Transparency, Prevention and Fight Against Corruption* with a constitutional amendment in 2020, but this commission was not operationalized until 2022 via Law No. 22-08 (Algeria, 2022). Sudan's 2019 Constitution established an explicit anti-corruption commission (the *Empowerment Removal Committee*). However, this committee was suspended following the October 2021 military coup. According to the *Sudan Tribune*, the committee announced that it would resume operations in March 2026 after nearly four years of inactivity (Sudan Tribune, 2026). This leaves no post-treatment period to study.

Third, some cases lack a sufficiently long enough pre-treatment period either because constitutional order was interrupted or because the provision existed continuously since independence. This includes Fiji (2013), Papua New Guinea (1975), Saint Lucia (1978), Singapore (1963), Seychelles (1979), Taiwan (1947), and Ukraine (1989). After applying these restrictions, we are left with fourteen constitutional commission adoptions across fourteen countries.

Lastly, while our focus is on *new* commissions, we add four "special" cases: Ecuador 2008, Nepal 1990, Zambia 1991, and Zimbabwe 2013. In all four instances, these countries adopted a *new* constitution and maintained an already existing counter-corruption commission, but substantially revised the directive or structure of the commission. For example, Nepal's first counter-corruption commission was adopted via amendment in 1975, but the commission operated with essentially no independence. With the new constitution adopted in 1990, the commission changed drastically to allow for more independence. We treat each of these four special cases as a new intervention.

The above conditions yield eighteen new commissions (i.e., our treatments) that we can study. Three commissions were established through amendment: Nepal (1975), Zimbabwe (2000), and Namibia (2010). The remaining fifteen adoptions occurred within entirely new constitutional adoptions and include Afghanistan (2004), Bhutan (2005), the Central African Republic (2016), Ecuador (1998), Ecuador (2008), Egypt (2012), Eswa-

tini (2005), Kenya (2010), Nepal (1990), the Maldives (2008), Morocco (2011), Trinidad and Tobago (1976), Zambia (1973), Zambia (1991), and Zimbabwe (2013).[6]

The remainder of this section describes the constitutional provisions contained in these cases, with particular attention to the amendment adoptions. Appendix C reproduces the relevant constitutional text for all cases and we provide a summary table highlighting important components of each (see Table C2 for amendment only cases and Table C4 for the remaining cases). In nearly all cases, the constitutional text is copied from the Comparative Constitutions Project (exceptions are noted).

2.2 Zimbabwe - 2000

Zimbabwe introduced a constitutional counter-corruption commission through the 16th Amendment of its 1980 Constitution.[7] *Article 108A*, titled ***Anti-Corruption Commission***, established a constitutionally recognized body charged with combating corruption, theft, misappropriation, and abuse of power in both the public and private sectors (Zimbabwe, 1980). The amendment outlined qualifications for commissioners and authorized Parliament to grant the Commission investigative and prosecutorial powers. On paper, Article 108A represented a substantial institutional commitment to combating corruption. Zimbabwe later adopted a new constitution in 2013 that retained the Commission while significantly expanding and clarifying its powers. Because the 2000 amendment created the institution and the 2013 constitution substantially revised it, we treat the two reforms as separate constitutional interventions. Our focus is on the first case here.

Zimbabwe's 16th amendment was contentious, and the creation of the ***Anti-Corruption Commission*** was only one component of a broader reform. The amendment also introduced Section 16A, titled ***Agricultural Land Acquired for Resettlement*** (Zimbabwe, 1980). Its provisions authorized the Zimbabwean government to acquire land for

[6]Bhutan's constitution was formally adopted in 2008. We are using the 2005 dating because this is when the commission first appears in the CCP dataset.

[7]We are using the dating of the Constitution from Constitution Net.

resettlement *without* an obligation to pay compensation. This formed the legal foundation for Zimbabwe's ***Fast-Track Land Program*** (Shay, 2012).[8] The program emerged in response to growing political pressure to redistribute land away from white commercial farmers and return it to dispossessed Black Zimbabweans. Notably, the amendment assigned responsibility for compensation to former colonial powers, thereby absolving the Zimbabwean government of direct financial obligation.

The period that followed was characterized by political violence, corruption, and a faltering rule of law (Sachikonye, 2002; Shay, 2012). Yet, corruption was already a serious problem in Zimbabwe before this amendment (Makumbe, 1994). As a result, the expected effect of the ***Anti-Corruption Commission*** is not obvious *a priori*. On one hand, the creation of a constitutionally recognized anti-corruption body could have strengthened oversight and accountability. On the other hand, the Commission was introduced as part of a highly controversial constitutional reform, raising the possibility that it functioned primarily as a symbolic commitment rather than an effective constraint on government behavior.

2.3 Namibia - 2010

Namibia gained independence from South Africa in 1990, the year in which its current constitution was adopted. As in many post-colonial African states, concerns about corruption emerged early in the country's development (Mlambo et al., 2023). These concerns, together with growing international pressure to adopt anti-corruption measures (e.g., Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development, 1997; United Nations Office on Drugs and Crime, 2003; African Union, 2003), led to the passage of the *Anti-Corruption Act* of 2003 (Legal Assistance Centre, 2003). The Act established the *Anti-Corruption Commission*, which became operational in 2006. Thus, by the time of the 2010 constitutional amendment, Namibia already possessed a functioning anti-corruption

[8] In summarizing this program and the constitutional rules that apply to it, Shay (2012) refers to Section 16A as Amendment 16A. The author also discusses the closely related provisions contained in Section 16B, which were added via the 17th amendment in 2005 (Zimbabwe, 1980).

agency.

The significance of the 2010 amendment was therefore not the creation of a *new* institution, but the constitutional *entrenchment* of an existing one. The amendment incorporated the *Anti-Corruption Commission* into the constitution and explicitly emphasized its independence and impartiality. In doing so, it elevated the commission's status within Namibia's institutional framework and signaled a constitutional commitment to combating corruption. Because the commission already existed prior to the amendment, Namibia provides a particularly useful case for evaluating whether constitutional recognition itself enhances the effectiveness of anti-corruption institutions.

2.4 Nepal - 1975

Nepal introduced its first counter-corruption commission through the 1975 amendment of its 1962 Constitution. This amendment included *Article 67C*, establishing the ***Prevention of Abuse of Authority Commission*** (Nepal, 1962). The Commission consisted of a Chief and additional commissioners, all appointed by the King. The King also retained authority to determine the Commission's functions, duties, and procedures. Consequently, while the amendment established Nepal's first constitutional anti-corruption body, it provided few institutional safeguards against political interference. Because anti-corruption commissions are often tasked with investigating politically connected individuals, their effectiveness depends in part on their ability to operate free from political interference (Rose-Ackerman, 2007; Gregory, 2015). The 1975 provision instead made the Commission entirely subordinate to the monarchy, potentially limiting its ability to function as an effective constraint on the abuse of public authority.

Subsequent constitutional reforms substantially altered this institutional framework. Both the 1990 and 2015 Constitutions established a ***Commission for the Investigation of Abuse of Authority (CIAA)*** with appointment and oversight mechanisms designed to provide greater autonomy from political actors (Nepal, 1990, 2015). In particular, the constitutions introduced procedures governing both the appointment and

removal of commissioners, with the threshold for removal set deliberately high: a commissioner "may be removed from his office on the same grounds and in the same manner as has been set forth for the removal of a Judge of the Supreme Court" (Nepal, 1990, p. 34). Although the constitutions do not explicitly describe the CIAA as independent, these institutional protections represent a substantial departure from the direct royal control embodied in the 1975 amendment. We therefore examine not only whether the introduction of a constitutional anti-corruption commission in 1975 affected corruption, but also whether the more independent institutional framework adopted in 1990 produced different outcomes.

2.5 Other Counter-Corruption Commission Provisions

As the discussion above indicates, the three amendment cases differ considerably from one another. The remaining fifteen cases are ones in which a country adopted a new constitutional system that included a new (or heavily revised) counter-corruption commission. The goal of this paper is to uncover general trends in corruption conditional on the one thing all 18 cases have in common: the adoption of a constitutionally backed counter-corruption commission. We do not attempt to provide a holistic account of the remaining 15 cases as this would be beyond the scope of this paper. Instead, we simply summarize a few of the key phrases that appear in the remaining 15 cases.

Most provisions include broad, aspirational commitments to combating corruption (e.g., Bhutan, Maldives, Egypt, Morocco, Eswatini, Zimbabwe) and frame this effort in the language of integrity, transparency, and good governance. Another common theme is the establishment of an independent or impartial commission. Constitutions describe these commissions as an "independent authority" or an "independent and impartial institution," or include provisions intended to insulate them from political influence (e.g., Bhutan, Maldives, Central African Republic, Kenya, Eswatini, Ecuador, Zimbabwe). Many constitutions also specify operational powers. These most commonly include the authority to receive complaints and investigate alleged corruption (Ecuador, Eswatini,

Maldives, Trinidad and Tobago, Nepal, Zimbabwe). Less frequently, they specify the process and authority to pursue or refer cases for prosecution (Bhutan, Ecuador, Eswatini, Maldives, Zimbabwe). A narrower theme centers on asset and interest disclosure, appearing only in Afghanistan, the Central African Republic, and Trinidad and Tobago.

The above paragraph details some common themes across these constitutions, but we emphasize that the breadth and details of these provisions vary considerably. We also note that there are some cases like Eswatini, Zimbabwe, and Ecuador that incorporate nearly every theme discussed above, whereas others are much more limited. Despite their differences, however, all 18 cases in our sample share a common feature: each represents an explicit constitutional commitment to combating corruption through the creation or constitutional recognition of a specialized anti-corruption body. Whether this shared constitutional commitment is associated with meaningful reductions in corruption is ultimately an empirical question, and the one that we study in this paper.

3 Empirical Method

3.1 Synthetic Control Method

To evaluate whether constitutional anti-corruption commissions are associated with reductions in corruption, we employ the Synthetic Control Method (SCM). This method was first used in Abadie and Gardeazabal (2003), and later made common in Abadie et al. (2010, 2015); Abadie (2021). It is now used extensively to evaluate significant country-wide events in political economy research.[9] SCM allows us to construct a synthetic counterfactual for each adopting country using a weighted average of countries that never adopted a constitutional anti-corruption commission. These weights are chosen so that the synthetic control closely matches the treated country's corruption trajectory

[9]For example, see Grier and Maynard (2016) in their use of SCM to study the impact of the Chavez regime, Absher et al. (2023) to study the effect of CIA sponsored regime change in Latin America, or Bastos et al. (2026) in the recent analysis of the Cuban Revolution. Most closely related to this paper, Pavlik et al. (2023) use SCM to analyze the effect of five cases of increased constitutional length on corruption.

prior to adoption. Any divergence between a treated country and its synthetic counterpart provides an estimate of the reform's treatment effect.

In our setting, the treatment is the adoption of a constitutionally backed counter-corruption commission. Although the specific provisions differ across countries, each reform represents an attempt to combat corruption through the constitutional creation or recognition of a dedicated anti-corruption institution. If these reforms are effective, we would expect corruption in adopting countries to improve relative to their synthetic controls. Conversely, if constitutional anti-corruption commissions have little practical effect, corruption trajectories should remain similar to those of their synthetic counterparts in the post-adoption period.

Because constitutional anti-corruption commissions have been adopted in a variety of political and institutional contexts, we estimate separate synthetic controls for each case and then examine whether any general patterns emerge across countries. Our goal is not to explain the experience of any single country, but rather to assess whether constitutionalizing anti-corruption commissions is systematically associated with subsequent changes in corruption. A major part of this process involves selecting reasonable donors for each treatment. We detail how we do so in the following section.

3.2 Baseline Empirical Approach & Donor Selection

Ideally, donors should be similar to the treated country in ways that are relevant to determining the outcome. In a standard SCM application, this would involve carefully selecting donors based on detailed knowledge of their characteristics. However, because our analysis includes many heterogeneous treatments, we instead rely on a set of broad, systematic rules to generate alternative donor pools and assess whether the results change when we adjust the donor pool and/or predictor variables. In this way, our approach is most similar to that of Billmeier and Nannicini (2013).

Our baseline framework treats each constitutional reform as an event. For every treatment, we construct a 21-year window consisting of 10-years before and 10-years after

the adoption of the constitutional counter-corruption commission. The year of adoption is normalized to $t = 0$, allowing constitutional reforms occurring in different calendar years to be analyzed within a common event-time framework. As an example, Kenya adopted the *Ethics and Anti-Corruption Commission* in 2010. Thus, for Kenya, the period 2000–2009 corresponds to $t = -10$ through $t = -1$, while 2011–2020 corresponds to $t = 1$ through $t = 10$.

For each treatment, donor events are drawn from countries within the same World Bank region that also experienced constitutional change but did *not* adopt a constitutional counter-corruption commission.[10] Donor constitutions must remain in force for at least ten years following adoption and possess sufficient outcome data throughout the treatment window. The full list of donor events, adoption years, and coding decisions is reported in Table 1.

As with the treatments, donor events are centered around their own constitutional adoption dates. This allows constitutional reforms that occurred in different years to be compared within a common event-time framework. In some instances, a country contributes more than one donor event. For example, Brazil adopted new constitutions in both 1967 and 1988. We permit multiple donor events provided that the associated treatment windows do not overlap. It is therefore useful to think of our approach as an event-style analysis implemented within a Synthetic Control framework.[11]

This donor selection strategy is clearly useful for the 15 new constitution cases. Because constitutional replacement typically introduces numerous institutional reforms simultaneously, comparing countries that adopted a counter-corruption commission to countries experiencing constitutional transitions without such provisions helps isolate the marginal role of the commission itself. However, the three amendment cases warrant

[10] The exception is treatments in South Asia. Restricting donors to South Asia alone yields implausibly small donor pools. We therefore allow donors from all World Bank regions containing Asian countries, including East Asia and Pacific and Europe and Central Asia.

[11] Using similar event-study frameworks, Bologna Pavlik et al. (ming) and Pavlik and Young (2025) compare countries that are both experiencing constitutional change but differ in specific constitutional characteristics. The former studies revolutionary constitutions, the latter examines constitutions adopted through highly participatory processes.

more discussion.

Our baseline strategy extends the logic of the wholesale replacement cases to the three amendment cases. Although amendments are generally narrower in scope, none of the three amendment cases in our sample were single-issue reforms. Zimbabwe's 2000 amendment also introduced provisions underlying the *Fast Track Land Program*, Nepal's 1975 amendment revised the *Back to the Village National Campaign* and strengthened political control (ConstitutionNet, 2014), and Namibia's 2010 amendment addressed citizenship requirements and legislative terms. Thus, while constitutional replacements typically involve broader institutional reforms, both mechanisms can introduce substantial constitutional changes. Because our interest lies in the adoption of constitutional counter-corruption commissions rather than the reform process itself, our baseline compares both types of cases (amendment *and* replacement) to countries undergoing constitutional change without adopting such commissions. As a robustness check, we change the comparison group for amendment cases to countries that did *not* experience constitutional change. This allows us to assess the sensitivity of our results to this distinction. We discuss this more in the following section.

3.3 Baseline Predictor Variables & Robustness Checks

Our baseline specification uses the above-described donor pool and pre-treatment outcomes as predictors. This allows the synthetic control to reproduce the treated country's corruption trajectory as closely as possible prior to adoption. It also removes the possibility of "specification searching" outlined in Ferman et al. (2020). To be clear: we include, individually, each lagged outcome from $t-10$ through $t-1$ as predictor variables. However, we adjust this baseline specification in several ways. All of these results are discussed in Section 4.4 and presented in Appendix B. We simply outline the intuition behind them here.

First, although the common event-time framework is our preferred specification, the amendment cases present a unique opportunity for a different specification. Unlike whole-

sale constitutional replacement, amendments typically leave the broader constitutional order intact. Consequently, one may reasonably argue that amendment cases should be compared to countries operating within similarly stable constitutional environments rather than to countries undergoing constitutional transitions. As a robustness check, we therefore re-estimate the amendment cases using a donor pool consisting of countries from the same World Bank region that did *not* experience constitutional replacement during the corresponding 21-year treatment window. This restriction substantially reduces the number of available donors in some cases, most notably Zimbabwe, where the donor pool falls to only nine countries, but provides a useful test of whether the results are sensitive to the choice of comparison group.

Second, keeping the donor set and event-style approach identical to the baseline, we instead adjust the predictor set. Following Pavlik et al. (2023) and Pavlik and Young (2025) we use a mix of lagged outcomes and additional predictor variables to match our treatments with donor events. Specifically, we include four outcome lags at $t-10$, $t-7$, $t-4$, and $t-1$ and an additional six predictor variables. These include constitutional length (Elkins and Ginsburg, 2025), V-Dem's measures of polyarchy and civil participation, the Polity IV Project's *Polity2* score, and Freedom House measures of political rights and civil liberties.

Third, instead of adjusting the predictor set, we adjust the donor pool. Rather than limiting donors to come from a specific region, we include all possible events listed in Table 1 and let the SCM choose the weights using all lagged outcomes as predictor variables. This (likely) allows for the best overall match, yet has the highest likelihood of overfitting bias. Moreover, our inference relies on placebo testing and we use standardized p-values that account for this improvement in fit. We return to the issue of inference in the following section.

Lastly, we use the wealth of data available in Elkins and Ginsburg (2025) to improve upon the selection of donor events given their constitutional characteristics. To do so, we start with the full set of potential donor events listed in Table 1 and, instead of limiting

donors to be from a specific region, we use Mahalanobis distance matching (MDM) as a pre-processor to match each treatment to the top 15, 30, and 50 closest constitutions to the *new* constitutional change (i.e., nearest neighbor matching).[12] We then use these cases as donors in our SCM analysis.

3.4 Inference

As discussed above, once a synthetic control has been constructed, we compare the evolution of corruption in the treated country with that of its synthetic counterpart. The difference between these two trajectories represents the estimated treatment effect. To assess whether these effects are unusually large relative to what might arise by chance, we conduct permutation (in-place placebo) tests.

For each case, we iteratively assign treatment to every event in the donor pool and re-estimate the synthetic control as if that donor had adopted a constitutional counter-corruption commission in year $t = 0$. We then compare the resulting placebo effects to the effect estimated for the treated case. Following standard practice, the permutation tests account for differences in pre-treatment fit across treated and placebo units. We calculate two-sided p-values as the proportion of placebo effects that are at least as large in magnitude as the estimated treatment effect. These p-values are calculated using Stata's `synth_runner` package.

3.5 Data

3.5.1 Outcomes

Our main outcome of interest is political corruption, measured using Varieties of Democracy's (V-Dem, Version 16.0) Political Corruption index. V-Dem relies on country experts for each variable, country, and year. Some experts are asked about a single country in a

[12] Our reasoning is to find the set of potential donors that enacted similar *new* constitutions to those of the treated group, but without an anti-corruption clause. We also ran an alternative specification matching on the standing constitution *prior* to the change, leading to quite similar null results. This specification is described in Appendix B.4.

time period, while others are asked to score multiple countries over many time periods. This index is composed of four corruption measures V-Dem also collects: executive, public sector, legislative, and judicial corruption.[13] We invert the V-Dem score on political corruption such that higher scores indicate greater control of corruption, and lower scores correspond to less control, or *more* corruption. This is standard across international sources aiming to measure corruption.

We acknowledge that several alternative measures of corruption exist, most notably the World Bank's Control of Corruption Index, the International Country Risk Guide's (ICRG) corruption-related political risk measure, and Transparency International's Corruption Perceptions Index. We rely on V-Dem's Political Corruption Index primarily because of its temporal and geographic coverage. V-Dem provides annual data for the entire period relevant to our analysis and covers all countries in our sample. In contrast, using any of the alternative measures would make it impossible to analyze several of our cases, including our earliest treatment, Zambia in 1973. The ICRG measure comes closest to matching V-Dem's temporal coverage, but its data begin only in 1984. The World Bank's Control of Corruption Index begins in 1996, while Transparency International's Corruption Perceptions Index begins in 1995.[14] Furthermore, although the ICRG measure provides relatively long time-series coverage, it includes substantially fewer countries than V-Dem.

However, we recognize the value of examining an alternative outcome beyond perception-based corruption indices. As a complementary outcome, we analyze investment per capita from the Penn World Table (Version 11.0). While investment is not a direct measure of corruption, it represents an important channel through which corruption is believed to impact economic performance. A substantial body of literature (Asiedu and Freeman, 2009; Campos et al., 1999; Mauro, 1995; O'Toole and Tarp, 2014) finds that corruption

[13]For countries that do not have a legislative branch, political corruption is an average of just executive, judicial, and public sector corruption scores. In terms of our treatments, this is the case for Afghanistan and Egypt.

[14]Additionally, the World Bank's scores were reported biennially from 1996 through 2006, and Transparency International substantially revised its methodology in 2012, making scores before and after 2012 not directly comparable.

reduces investment by increasing transaction costs, creating uncertainty, and diverting resources toward rent-seeking activities and away from more productive uses. If constitutionally entrenched anti-corruption commissions meaningfully constrain corrupt behavior, their effects may be reflected not only in measures such as V-Dem's Political Corruption Index but also in increased investment within the affected economy.

3.5.2 Predictor Variables

As discussed above, the Synthetic Control Method requires a complete series of outcome data for both treated and donor units. Additional data requirements arise when covariates are incorporated as predictors. In our baseline specification, we rely exclusively on the full set of pre-treatment outcome lags and therefore require no additional data beyond the outcome measure itself.

However, we consider several alternative predictor specifications as robustness checks. In Appendix Section B.2, we supplement a subset of the lagged outcome values with measures of constitutional length (Elkins and Ginsburg, 2025), V-Dem's polyarchy and civil participation indices, the Polity IV Project's *Polity2* score, and Freedom House measures of political rights and civil liberties. These variables are selected based on prior research examining the relationship between constitutional institutions and corruption (Pavlik et al., 2023; Pavlik and Young, 2025).

In Appendix Section B.4, we adopt a different strategy that focuses on donor-pool construction rather than predictor selection. Specifically, we use constitutional provisions describing state organization, the balance of powers and oversight institutions, electoral systems, rights and freedoms, and economic institutions to identify countries with constitutional structures most similar to each treated case. These constitutionally similar countries then form the donor pool for a subsequent synthetic control analysis. This exercise allows us to assess whether our findings are sensitive to donor selection based on constitutional design rather than pre-treatment outcome trajectories alone.

4 The Effect of Counter-Corruption Commissions on Corruption

4.1 Commissions Adopted under Same Constitutional System

We begin with the three cases in which a counter-corruption commission was introduced through an amendment to an existing constitution: Zimbabwe (2000), Namibia (2010), and Nepal (1975) (Figure 1). The results differ somewhat across the three cases, though none is particularly strong. In Zimbabwe, corruption is slightly higher than predicted, although the difference is statistically insignificant based on the permutation tests. Namibia, by contrast, has a control of corruption score approximately 0.1 points higher than its synthetic counterpart. This difference is statistically significant at the 10% level or lower in all but the final year. However, Namibia's corruption score remains relatively flat throughout the period, and the estimated effect is driven by a decline in the synthetic control rather than an improvement. Nepal's corruption score also remains relatively unchanged, but its synthetic counterpart experiences an improvement in control of corruption. The resulting negative effect is statistically insignificant.[15] Taken together, there is little evidence that anti-corruption commission amendments are effective anti-corruption tools.

4.2 Commissions Adopted under New Constitutional Systems

We next examine the 15 cases in which a counter-corruption commission was adopted or substantially reformed alongside a new constitution. Eleven of these represent the first constitutional adoption of a commission: Afghanistan, Bhutan, Central African Republic, Ecuador (1998), Egypt, Eswatini, Kenya, Maldives, Morocco, Trinidad and Tobago, and Zambia (1973). The remaining four cases involved substantial reforms to

[15]The donor weights are reported in Table 2. Zimbabwe's synthetic control is primarily composed of Burundi, followed by Gambia in 1996 and Comoros. Namibia's synthetic control is largely composed of Botswana, while Nepal's is primarily composed of Myanmar, followed by the Kyrgyz Republic.

existing commissions: Ecuador (2008), Nepal (1990), Zambia (1991), and Zimbabwe (2013).[16] As with the amendment cases, we find little evidence that adopting a counter-corruption commission systematically improves corruption outcomes.

The three cases in the Americas (Figure 2) show no statistically significant effects. Ecuador (1998) and Trinidad and Tobago perform slightly better than their synthetic controls, while Ecuador (2008) initially tracks its counterfactual before falling below it and eventually recovering toward the end of the post-treatment period.

The estimated effects for Afghanistan, Egypt, and Morocco (Figure 3) are similarly small and statistically insignificant. Most permutation-test p-values exceed 0.8. Morocco tracks slightly below its synthetic control, with a gap that never exceeds about 0.05 points. Afghanistan exhibits a somewhat larger negative gap, although its poor pre-treatment fit limits the interpretation of this result. Egypt experiences a sharp pre-treatment spike the year right before the treatment date, which helps explain why Egypt fits above the synthetic.

The South Asian cases (Figure 4) also show no consistent evidence of improvement. Bhutan performs better than its synthetic control by more than 0.1 points in the later post-treatment years, while Maldives and Nepal perform worse. None of these differences are statistically significant. Nepal is particularly interesting because its two constitutional treatments produce similar results. Control of corruption remains relatively unchanged following both the 1975 amendment and the 1990 constitutional replacement, while the synthetic controls improve. Thus, neither the commission established under royal authority in 1975 nor the more independent commission introduced in 1990 is associated with an improvement in corruption outcomes.

The Sub-Saharan African cases show somewhat more positive results (Figure 5). Control of corruption improves relative to the synthetic controls in the Central African Republic, Kenya, and Eswatini. However, the estimated effects for the Central African Republic and Kenya are statistically insignificant. Eswatini is the exception, with statis-

[16] Donor weights for all 15 cases are reported in Table 3.

tically significant positive effects throughout the post-treatment period. Even here, the result reflects a *smaller* deterioration in control of corruption relative to the synthetic control rather than an absolute improvement. In other words, corruption was getting worse in all groups, but less so in Eswatini.

The remaining African cases are reported in Figure 6. Zambia's two constitutional treatments produce different trajectories, although neither is statistically significant. Following the 1973 constitution, control of corruption remains relatively stable while the synthetic control deteriorates. In contrast, corruption worsens following the 1991 constitution. These reforms also occurred under different political systems: the 1973 constitution established a single-party state, while the 1991 constitution marked Zambia's return to multiparty democracy. Zimbabwe (2013) also exhibits a changing trajectory. Control of corruption initially improves relative to the synthetic control but subsequently deteriorates, with statistically significant differences in both directions over the post-treatment period.

Table 4 summarizes the estimated effects across all 18 cases, including the three constitutional amendments. Across the post-treatment period, no more than six of the 18 cases exhibit statistically significant effects (of any direction) in any given year. Three cases show statistically significant improvements in control of corruption in each post-treatment year, except year seven, when only two do. In contrast, two cases exhibit statistically significant deterioration in years eight and nine, increasing to three cases by year ten. Most estimated effects, however, remain statistically insignificant throughout the post-treatment period. Overall, we find little evidence that constitutionally adopting a counter-corruption commission leads to systematic improvements in corruption outcomes.

4.3 Investment Per Capita

We next examine investment per capita as an indirect measure of the potential economic effects of constitutional counter-corruption commissions. If these commissions reduce

corruption, we might also expect improvements in investment. As with our corruption results, however, we find no systematic evidence of improvement. Afghanistan is excluded from this analysis because investment data are unavailable in the Penn World Table.

We begin with the three amendment cases (Figure 7). Zimbabwe and Namibia both have poor pre-treatment fits, making their post-treatment estimates difficult to interpret. Investment per capita in Zimbabwe collapses to zero a few years before the amendment, and remained unchanged during the post-treatment period. Namibia initially outperforms its synthetic control but experiences a substantial decline in investment during the second half of the post-treatment period. Nepal, meanwhile, experiences an initial increase in investment relative to its synthetic control, but the difference narrows over time. None of the estimated effects for these three cases are statistically significant.

The Americas cases (Figure 8) show somewhat more positive results. Ecuador's 1998 treatment has little effect on investment, while its 2008 treatment is associated with a substantial increase. By the fourth post-treatment year, investment per capita exceeds the synthetic control by approximately $1,500, with statistically significant effects in four years. However, this difference disappears by the end of the period. Trinidad and Tobago follows a similar pattern, with investment initially exceeding the synthetic control before converging toward it. The effect is statistically significant only in the first post-treatment year, and the divergence begins before treatment. Notably, neither Ecuador's 2008 treatment nor Trinidad and Tobago produced statistically significant improvements in corruption.

Egypt and Morocco (Figure 9) also experience increases in investment relative to their synthetic controls. Both have relatively good pre-treatment fits, with investment rising above the counterfactual beginning three years after adoption in Egypt and almost immediately in Morocco. The estimated effects reach approximately $1,000 in Egypt and $1,800 in Morocco. Egypt's effects are marginally significant ($p = 0.11$) in four post-treatment years, while Morocco's are significant throughout most of the period. Neither country, however, experienced a statistically significant improvement in corruption.

The South Asian cases (Figure 10) show considerably different trajectories. Bhutan initially underperforms its synthetic control before experiencing a relative increase in investment, while Maldives outperforms its synthetic control during the second half of the post-treatment period. Neither case produces statistically significant effects. Nepal, in contrast, experiences a substantial decline in investment relative to its synthetic control. By the end of the period, investment per capita is approximately $400, compared to $900 in the synthetic control. These negative effects are statistically significant in nearly every post-treatment year.

The Sub-Saharan African cases (Figures 11 and 12) also show mixed results. The Central African Republic, Eswatini, and Kenya generally experience higher investment relative to their synthetic controls, although the estimated effects are largely statistically insignificant. Zambia's two constitutional treatments produce opposite trajectories. Investment declines following the 1973 constitution but increases following the 1991 constitution. Neither effect is statistically significant, nor are the estimated effects for Zimbabwe (2013).

Table 5 summarizes the investment results across the cases. Although positive point estimates are somewhat more common than in our corruption analysis, this difference does not translate into more statistically significant improvements. By the end of the post-treatment period, three cases exhibit statistically significant *declines* in investment, compared to two with significant increases. Overall, the investment results provide little evidence that constitutional counter-corruption commissions systematically improve economic outcomes.

4.4 Robustness Checks

We present five robustness checks in Appendix B. First, we reconsider the donor pool for the three amendment cases by comparing them to countries with stable constitutions rather than those undergoing constitutional change (Appendix B.1). The corruption results (Figure B1) differ somewhat from the baseline. Namibia's positive effect disappears,

while Zimbabwe now falls below its synthetic control, with marginally significant effects throughout the post-treatment period. Nepal remains insignificant. For investment per capita (Figure B2), Nepal is the only case with a sustained positive effect, although the estimates are statistically significant in only some years. The lack of significance and inconsistent direction of the estimated effects again point to a null effect.

Second, we re-estimate the synthetic controls using additional political and institutional predictors (Appendix B.2). Although the donor weights change, the corruption results remain largely unchanged. Table B4 shows that negative point estimates slightly outnumber positive ones under this specification, and only sparsely statistically significant in any given post-treatment year. The investment results (Table B7) are somewhat more positive, particularly in the earlier post-treatment years, when we also observe more statistically significant improvements.

Third, we expand the donor pool to include countries outside the treated country's World Bank region (Appendix B.3). The results closely resemble the baseline findings. For corruption (Table B10), positive and negative estimates are again nearly evenly divided, with few statistically significant effects. Investment per capita (Table B13) shows a greater share of positive estimates, but most remain statistically insignificant.

Fourth, we use Mahalanobis distance matching to select donor constitutions with similar institutional characteristics, considering the 15, 30, and 50 closest matches (Appendix B.4). The corruption results (Table B15) again show little evidence of systematic improvement. Although positive estimates are somewhat more common, few are statistically significant.

Lastly, we pool the 18 cases and estimate an average treatment effect on control of corruption using the region-specific donor pools (Appendix B.5). To account for averaging, we construct placebo averages by drawing one donor from each of the 18 donor pools and compare the estimated effect to a large random sample of these placebo averages (as in, e.g., Cavallo et al., 2013; Absher et al., 2023; Cachanosky et al., 2025).[17]

[17]Since this method would generate a set of 5.87×10^{25} possible placebo combinations (a product of the 18 donor pool sizes), we conduct our inference with a random sample of 50,000 placebos.

The average effect is close to zero in the years immediately following adoption and turns slightly negative later in the post-treatment period, but it is not statistically significant in any year except the last one, which is borderline significant (p=0.0995) – see Figure B3. Even when pooling all cases, there is no evidence that constitutional counter-corruption commissions improve control of corruption.

Overall, our main findings are robust to alternative donor pools, predictor variables, and matching procedures. Across specifications, we find little evidence that constitutionally adopting a counter-corruption commission systematically improves corruption outcomes.

5 Concluding Discussion

Constitutionally backed counter-corruption commissions are increasingly used as tools to combat corruption. By establishing these commissions in a country's supreme law, reformers may hope to insulate them from political pressure and strengthen their independence. This paper examines whether these commissions actually reduce corruption. Using the Synthetic Control Method, we study eighteen cases in which countries adopted or substantially reformed a constitutional counter-corruption commission. We find little evidence that these commissions systematically improve corruption control. Most estimated effects are statistically insignificant, and the few significant effects vary in direction. We find similar results for investment per capita, and our findings are robust to alternative specifications and donor pools.

Several explanations may account for these findings. Constitutional status alone may not provide commissions with the resources, independence, or political support necessary to combat corruption (De Sousa, 2010; Quah, 2013). Moreover, commissions are often established alongside broader political and institutional reforms, which may limit their effectiveness. They may also serve as symbolic commitments to reform without meaningfully changing government behavior. Nepal provides an example: neither the commission

established under royal control in 1975 nor the more independent commission introduced in 1990 was associated with improvements in corruption control.

Our findings contribute to the literature on constitutional design and corruption. Previous research finds limited evidence that constitutional length or public participation in constitution-making substantially reduces corruption (Pavlik et al., 2023; Pavlik and Young, 2025). We extend this work by examining a specific constitutional institution explicitly designed to combat corruption. More broadly, our results are consistent with research emphasizing the distinction between formal constitutional provisions and their implementation (Elkins and Ginsburg, 2021; Chilton and Versteeg, 2022).

Our analysis is limited by the relatively small number of cases, their institutional differences, and the possibility that some effects take longer than ten years to emerge. Future research could examine how commissions operate in practice, including their resources, investigative powers, and political independence. Overall, our findings suggest that constitutionally establishing a counter-corruption commission is not, by itself, sufficient to reduce corruption.

AI Disclosure: During the preparation of this work we used Claude (Opus 5.5) to review our code for statistical analysis, and summarizing common phrases in anti-corruption provisions across constitutions. We claim full responsibility for the content of the published article.

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Tables and Figures

Table 1: List of (Potential) Donor Countries/Events

Country	Year	Country	Year	Country	Year
Albania	1976	Gambia†	1996	Paraguay	1992
Albania**	1998	German Democratic Republic	1968	Peru†	1993
Angola	1975	Greece†**	1975	Philippines*†	1986
Angola	2010	Guatemala*†**	1982	Poland†	1997
Argentina**	1983	Guinea†**	1990	Qatar*	1970
Bangladesh†	1986	Guinea-Bissau†**	1984	Qatar	2003
Barbados	1966	Guyana†**	1980	Romania	1965
Benin†	1990	Haiti†**	1987	Romania	1991
Bolivia†**	1967	Hungary	2011	Russia†	1993
Bolivia†	2009	Iran	1979	Sao Tome & Principe	1975
Botswana	1966	Iraq*†	2004	Senegal†	2001
Brazil	1967	Kyrgyz Republic†**	2010	Serbia	2006
Brazil	1988	Laos	1991	Sierra Leone†**	1996
Bulgaria†	1991	Lesotho†**	1993	Solomon Islands	1978
Burundi*†**	2004	Liberia	1986	Somalia†**	1979
Cameroon†	1972	Libya*	1969	Somalia†**	2012
Cape Verde	1980	Libya*	2011	Spain†	1978
Chad†**	1996	Madagascar†	2010	Sri Lanka†	1978
China†**	1982	Malawi†**	1966	Suriname†**	1987
Colombia	1991	Malawi†	1994	Sweden	1974
Comoros†**	1978	Mali†	1992	Switzerland	1999
Comoros†	2001	Mauritania†	1991	Syria†**	1973
Congo†**	1979	Mauritius	1968	Syria†	2012
Congo†	2001	Mongolia*†	1990	Tanzania†	1977
Cote d'Ivoire†**	2000	Mozambique†	2004	Togo†	1992
Cuba†	1976	Myanmar†	1974	Tunisia*†	2011
Czech Republic	1993	Myanmar†	2008	Turkey†	1982
Djibouti†	1992	Nicaragua†	1987	Turkmenistan†	2008
El Salvador†	1983	Niger†	2009	Uruguay†	1985
Equatorial Guinea†**	1991	Oman†	1996	Vanuatu	1980
Eritrea	1997	Pakistan†	2002	Venezuela†	1999
Ethiopia†**	1994	Panama	1972	Vietnam†	1992
Gabon†	1991	Paraguay	1967	Yemen†	1991
Gambia†**	1970				

Notes: Donor events represent a newly adopted Constitution at time t, and that Constitution stayed in place for at least 10 ($t+10$) years, with a few noted exceptions. Donor events marked * are interim Constitutions but are either themselves long-lasting or were followed by the adoption of a new long-lasting Constitution within 5 years. Donors marked † had other *new* Constitutional events that we do not consider either due to missing V-Dem corruption data, other major Constitutional events in the pre/post treatment window, or overlapping windows where the longer-lasting event takes precedence. This † category also includes events ignored because we limit our sample to adoptions occurring between 1965 and 2023 given other data constraints. Donor events marked ** adopted a new or interim Constitution, or suspended former Constitution, in the pre-treatment period. Argentina 1983, Bangladesh 1986, Pakistan 2002, Sierra Leone 1996, and Uruguay 1985 adoptions are technically reinstatements. Iraq had many interim Constitutions that we ignore.

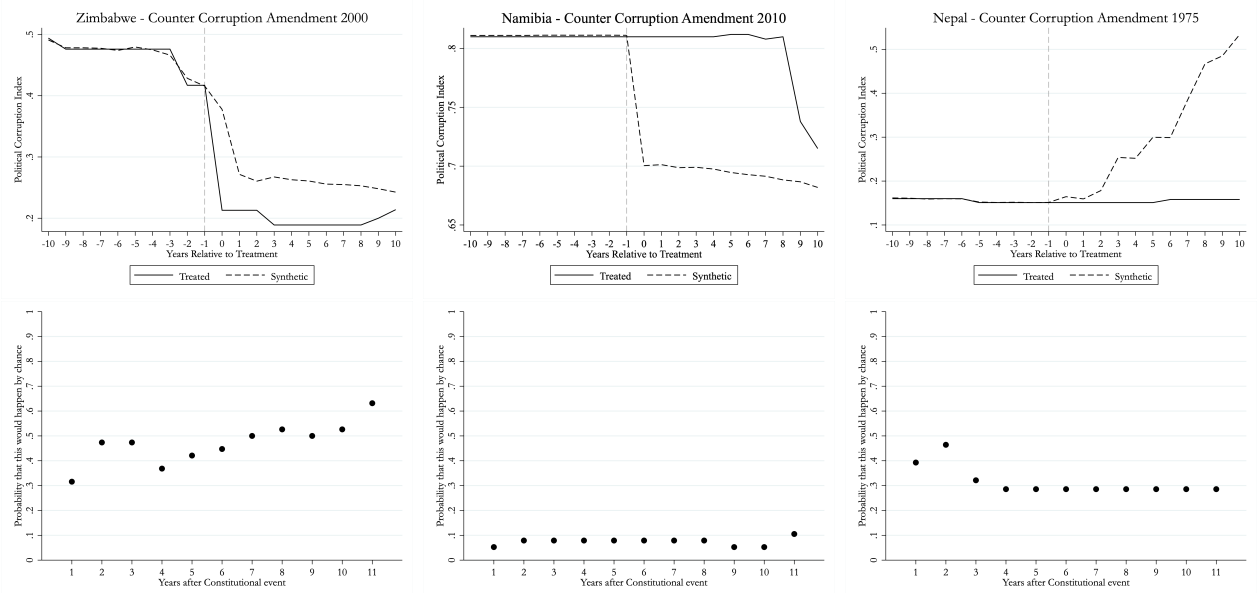
Table 2: Resulting Donor Weights for Amendment Treatments and Political Corruption

Treatment	**Donor Weights**
Zimbabwe - 2000	Burundi (0.352), Comoros (0.153), Eritrea (0.022), Gambia – 1996 (0.169), Niger (0.136), Sierra Leone (0.056), and Somalia – 2012 (0.113)
Namibia - 2010[a]	Botswana (0.742), Congo (0.046), and Guinea-Bissau (0.041)
Nepal - 1975	Bangladesh (0.024), Czech Republic (0.005), Kyrgyz Republic (0.178), Laos (0.104), Myanmar – 2008 (0.652), Poland (0.002), Spain (0.002), Turkey (0.003), and Vietnam (0.003)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. These weights are calculated using our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative weights with different predictors and/or different donor pools are given in **Appendix B**.

[a] All donors received small, positive weights. These are the only ones to receive a weight greater than 0.04.

Figure 1: Counter corruption amendment effects on V-Dem's Political Corruption Index for Zimbabwe (2000), Namibia (2010), and Nepal (1975)



Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter corruption commission adoption via amendment. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries. The vertical dashed line marks the year prior to the counter corruption amendment ($t = 0$). Bottom panels show placebo p-values are computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment fit as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t - 10$ through $t - 1$. The donor pool is listed in Table 1 and, in each case, is restricted to countries that are within the same World Bank region. Results with alternative predictors and donor pools are in Appendix B.

Table 3: Resulting Donor Weights for New Constitutional Adoptions and Political Corruption

Treatment	Donor Weights
Americas	
Ecuador – 1998	Argentina (0.094), Bolivia – 1967 (0.121), Nicaragua (0.097), Paraguay – 1967 (0.172), Peru (0.303), Venezuela (0.213)
Ecuador – 2008[a]	Argentina (0.022), Barbados (0.062), Brazil – 1988 (0.321), El Salvador (0.013), Guatemala (0.559), Suriname (0.023)
Trinidad & Tobago 1976	Argentina (0.043), Barbados (0.818), Nicaragua (0.005), Panama (0.051), Peru (0.083)
Middle East and North Africa	
Afghanistan – 2004	Syria – 1979 (0.108), Turkmenistan (0.859), and Yemen (0.032)
Egypt – 2012	Iran (0.024), Iraq (0.871), and Oman (0.105)
Morocco – 2011	Iraq (0.006), Pakistan (0.088), Qatar – 1970 (0.261), Qatar – 2003 (0.284), and Turkmenistan (0.361)
South Asia	
Bhutan – 2005	Albania – 1998 (0.023), Bulgaria (0.180), Czech Republic (0.056), Hungary (0.097), Spain (0.047), Sweden (0.447), Turkey (0.023), and Vanuatu (0.127)
Maldives – 2008	Czech Republic (0.212), Kyrgyz Republic (0.613), Myanmar – 2008 (0.035), Serbia (0.056), Spain (0.079), and Turkey (0.005)
Nepal – 1990[a]	Bangladesh (0.012), Hungary (0.028), Laos (0.014), Myanmar – 2008 (0.917), Poland (0.013), Serbia (0.004), Spain (0.011).
Sub-Saharan Africa	
Central African Republic – 2016	Congo – 1979 (0.102), Mali (0.173), Sierra Leone (0.362), and Somalia – 2012 (0.364)
Eswatini – 2005	Botswana (0.194) and Gambia (0.122)[b]
Kenya – 2010	Cape Verde (0.084), Equatorial Guinea (0.468), Eritrea (0.028), Malawi – 1966 (0.015), Mali (0.118), and Sierra Leone (0.288)
Zambia – 1973[c]	Botswana (0.626), Comoros – 1978 (0.005), Gambia (0.198), and Niger (0.171)
Zambia – 1991[a]	Botswana (0.545), Congo – 2001 (0.018), Eritrea (0.008), Gambia (0.026), Guinea-Bissau (0.017), Lesotho (0.006), Madagascar (0.062), Mauritius (0.302), Mozambique (0.006), and Sierra Leone (0.011)
Zimbabwe – 2013[a]	Somalia – 2012 (0.172)[b]

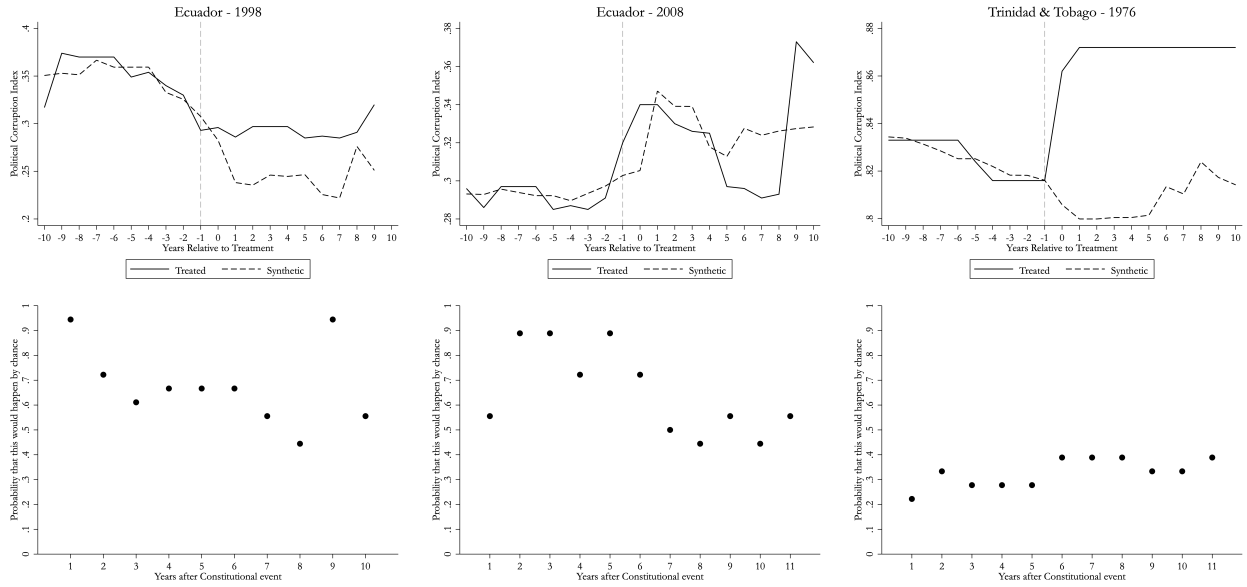
Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. These weights are calculated using our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications with different predictors and their corresponding weights are given in **Appendix B**. The full set of donors is listed in Table 1. For each set of treatments within a region, as defined by the World Bank, we limit donors to also be from within that region. The exception to this is South Asia as there are insufficient donors. For South Asia, then, we instead use all World Bank regions that contain parts of Asia as potential donors for treatments in this group.

[a] These are special cases. They are new Constitutional events, but had counter corruptions in place before new Constitution.

[b] All donors received small, positive weights. These are are the only ones to receive a weight greater than 0.100.

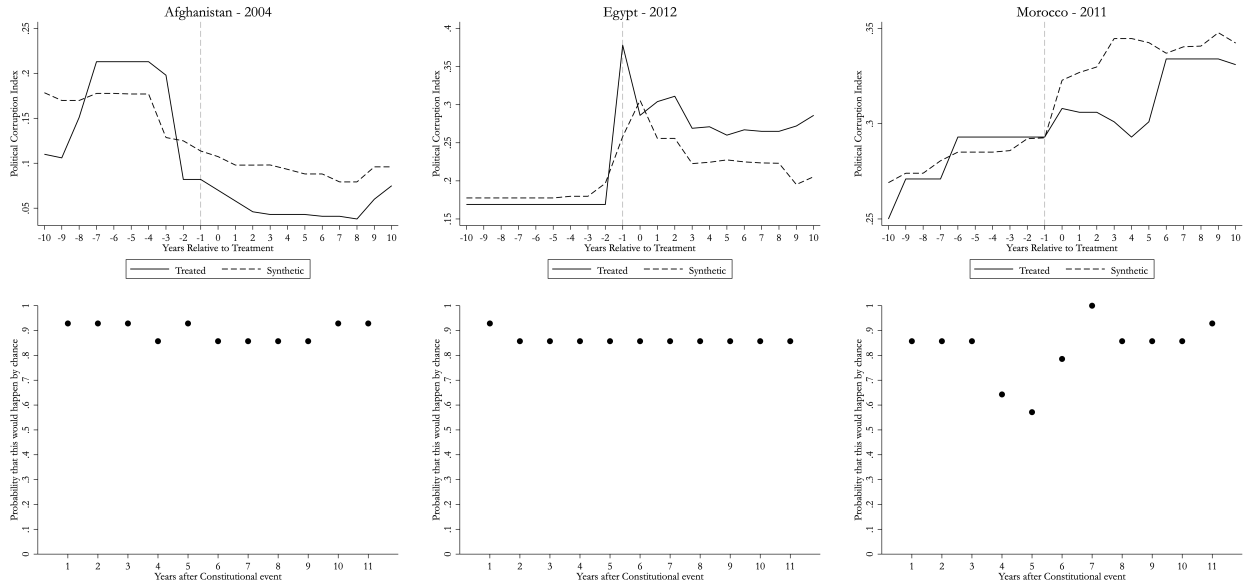
[c] This is a special case only because we do not have access the constitutional text outlining the countercorruption commission.

Figure 2: Main Treatment Effects in the Americas: Ecuador (1998; 2008) and Trinidad & Tobago (1973)



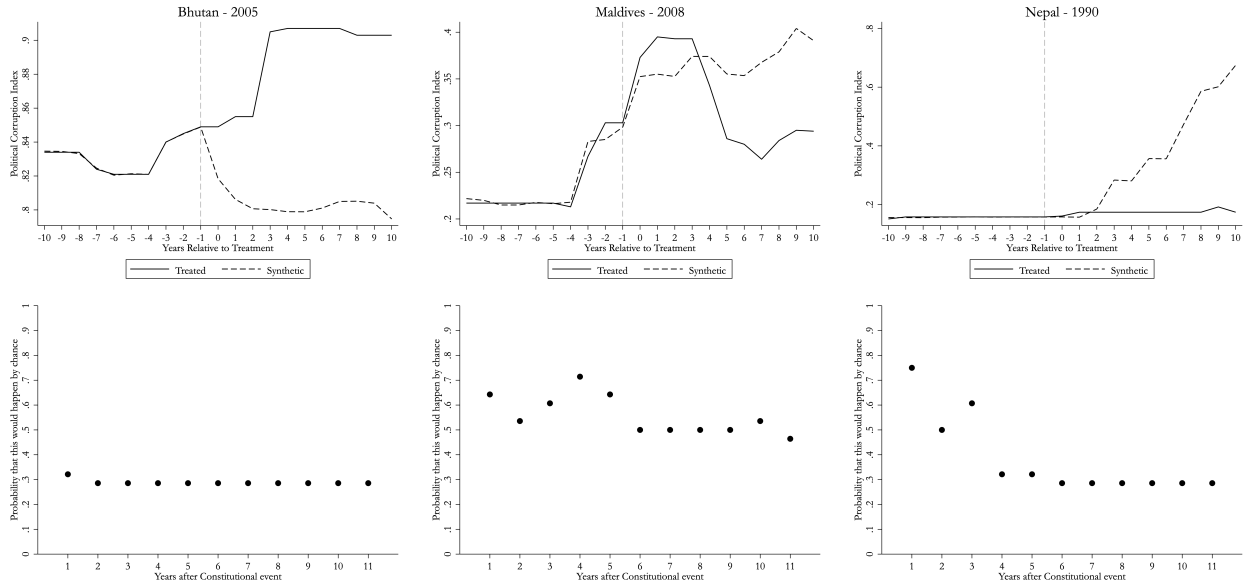
Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the year before the treatment ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t-10$ to $t-1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t+1$ to $t+10$) window, with t as the treatment year. Ecuador (1998) is an exception, using a 9-year post-treatment window ($t+1$ to $t+9$) due to the adoption of a new Constitution in 2008.

Figure 3: Main Treatment Effects in the Middle East and North Africa: Afghanistan (2004), Egypt (2012), and Morocco (2011)



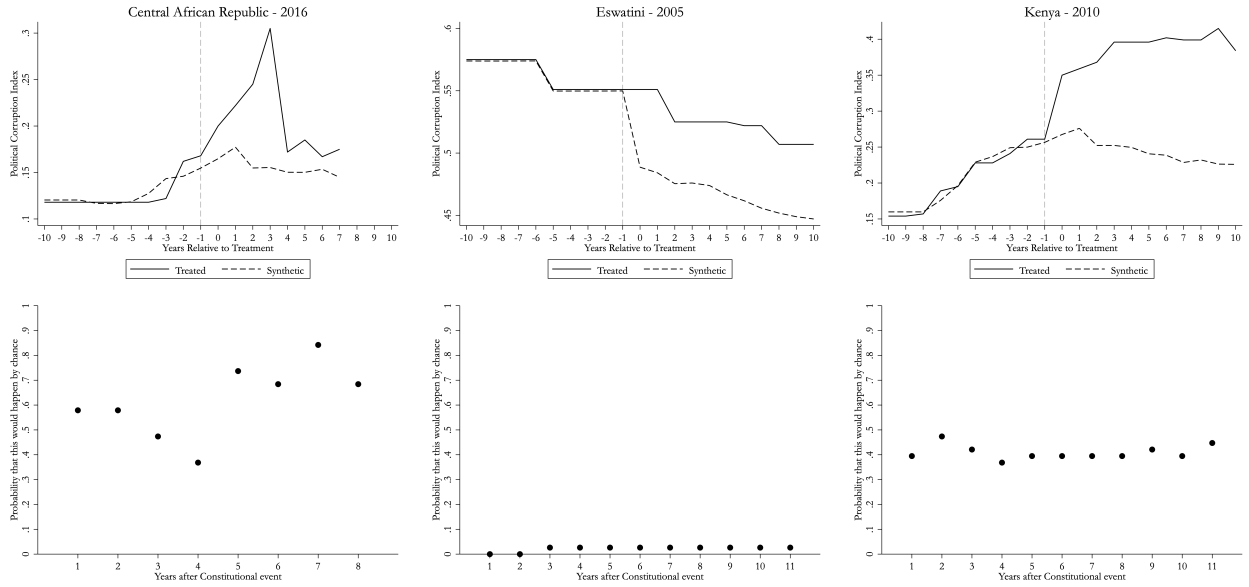
Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the year before the treatment ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t-10$ to $t-1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t+1$ to $t+10$) window, with t as the treatment year.

Figure 4: Main Treatment Effects in South Asia: Bhutan (2005), Maldives (2008), and Nepal (1990)



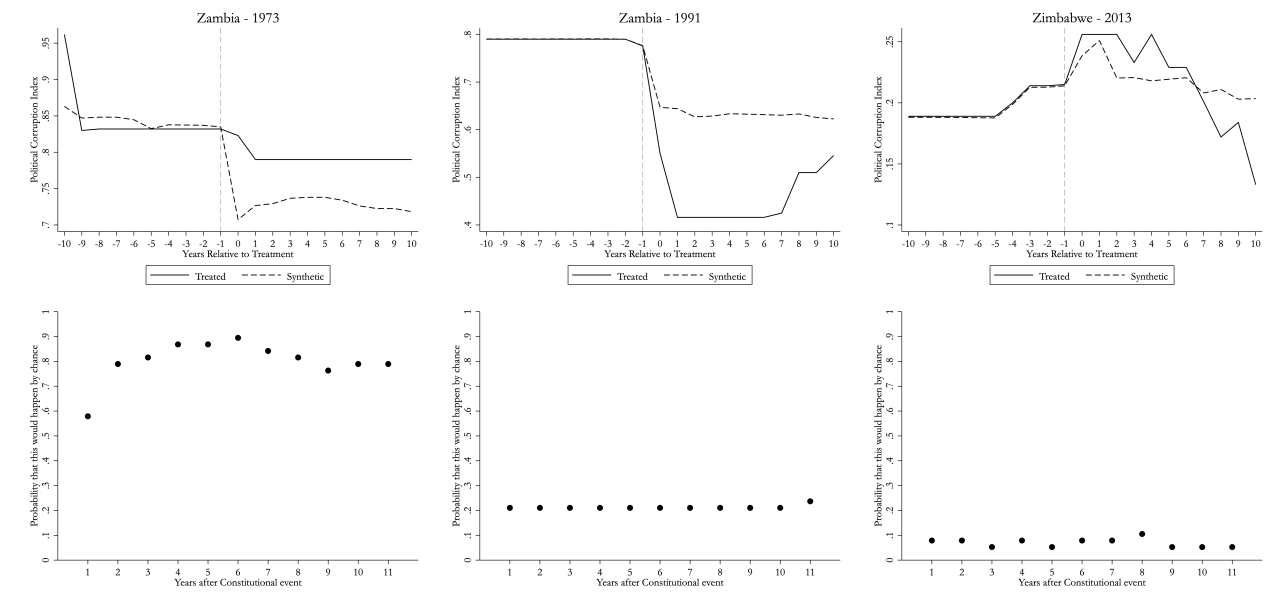
Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the year before the treatment ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t-10$ to $t-1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t+1$ to $t+10$) window, with t as the treatment year.

Figure 5: Main Treatment Effects in Sub-Saharan Africa: Central African Republic (2016), Eswatini (2005), and Kenya (2010)



Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the year before the treatment ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t-10$ to $t-1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t+1$ to $t+10$) window, with t as the treatment year. CAF is an exception due to late adoption (2016); the post-treatment period is limited to $t+7$ or 2023.

Figure 6: Main Treatment Effects in Sub-Saharan Africa for Special Cases: Zambia (1973; 1991) and Zimbabwe (2013)



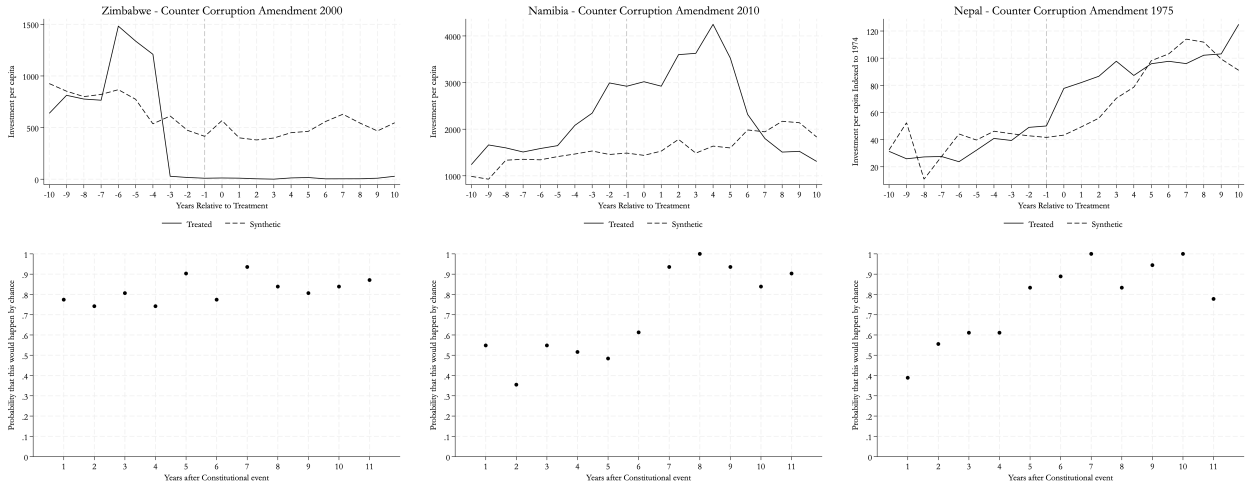
Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the year before the treatment ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t-10$ to $t-1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t+1$ to $t+10$) window, with t as the treatment year. CAF is an exception due to late adoption (2016); the post-treatment period is limited to $t+7$ or 2023.

Table 4: Summary of treatment effects for political corruption

Years After Adoption	Positive	Negative	Significant Positive	Significant Negative	Total Estimated Effects
0	12	6	3	0	18
1	12	6	3	0	18
2	11	7	3	0	18
3	11	7	3	0	18
4	11	7	3	0	18
5	10	8	3	0	18
6	10	8	3	0	18
7	9	9	2	0	18
8	8	9	3	2	17
9	9	8	3	2	17
10	8	8	3	3	16

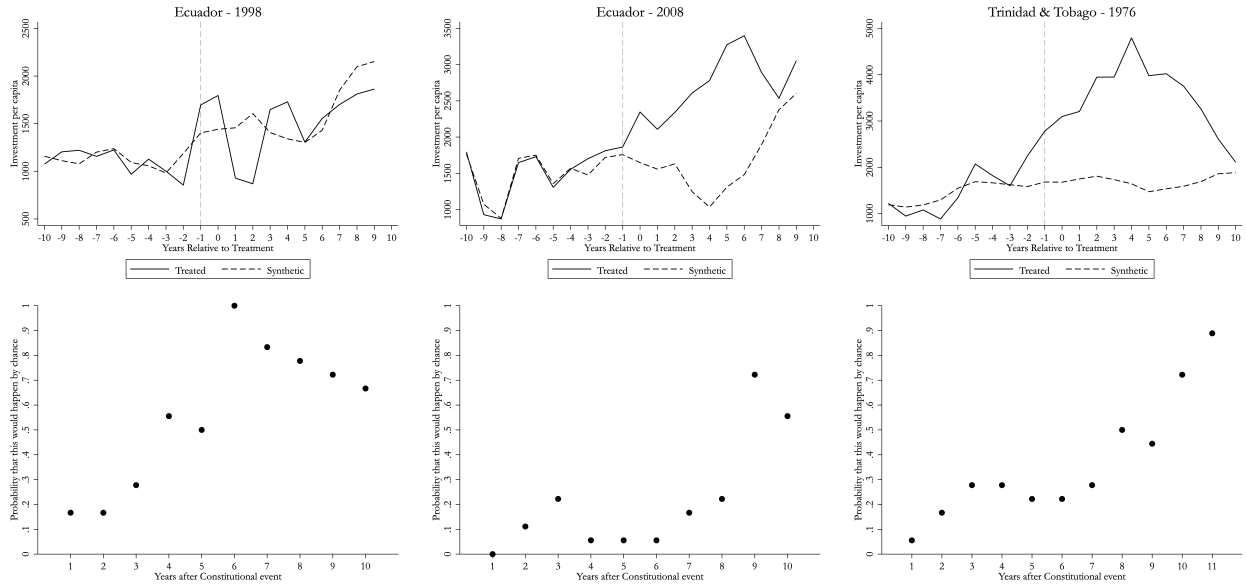
Notes: Significant effects are those with standardized placebo p-values $\leq .10$. Totals fall below 18 in later years because two cases (Central African Republic (2016) and Ecuador (1998)) have shorter post-treatment windows.

Figure 7: Counter corruption amendment effects on investment per capita for Zimbabwe (2000), Namibia (2010), and Nepal (1975)



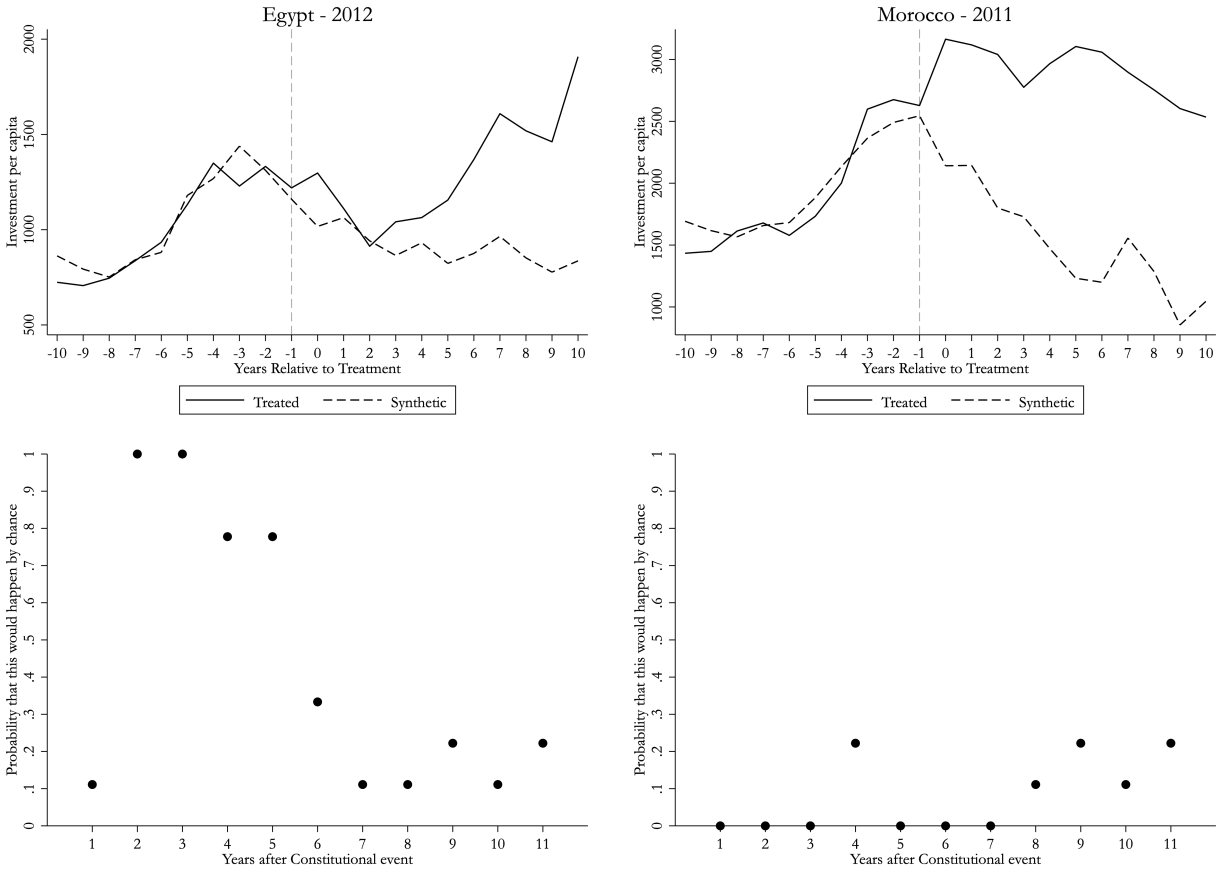
Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter corruption commission adoption via amendment. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries. The vertical dashed line marks the year prior to the counter corruption amendment ($t = 0$). Bottom panels show placebo p-values are computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment fit as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t - 10$ through $t - 1$. Donor pool listed in Table 1 restricted to countries that are within the same World Bank region. Results with alternative specifications and donor pools are in Appendix B.

Figure 8: Counter corruption effect on investment per capita in the Americas: Ecuador (1998; 2008) and Trinidad & Tobago (1973)



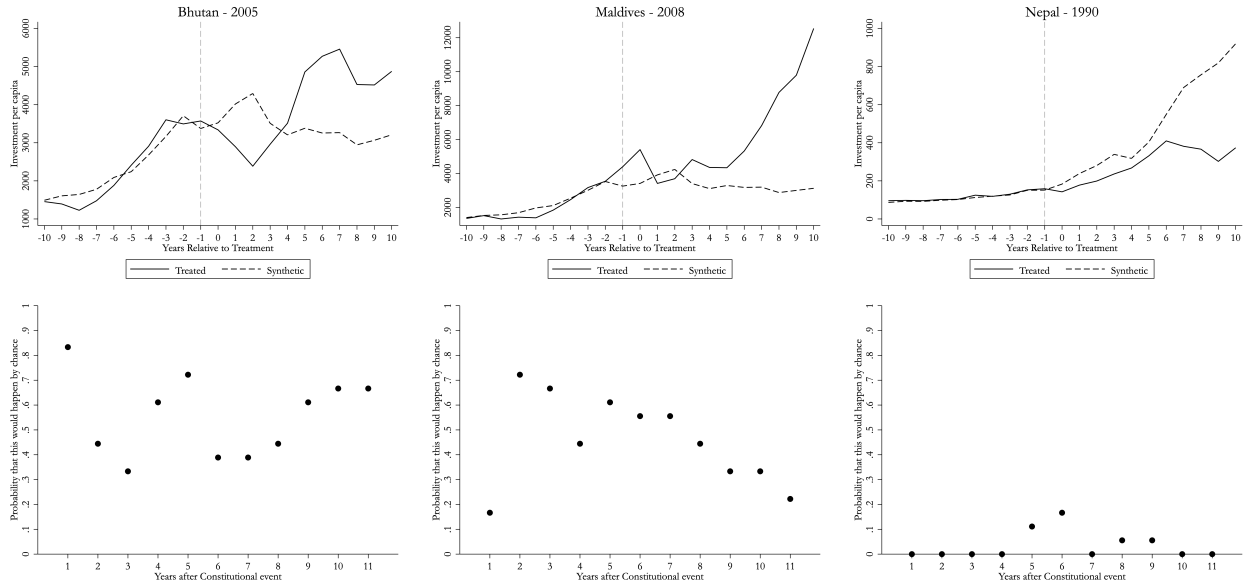
Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the treatment year ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t-10$ to $t-1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t+1$ to $t+10$) window, with t as the treatment year. Ecuador (1998) is an exception, using a 9-year post-treatment window ($t+1$ to $t+9$) due to the adoption of a new Constitution in 2008.

Figure 9: Counter corruption effect on investment per capita in the Middle East and North Africa: Egypt (2012) and Morocco (2011)



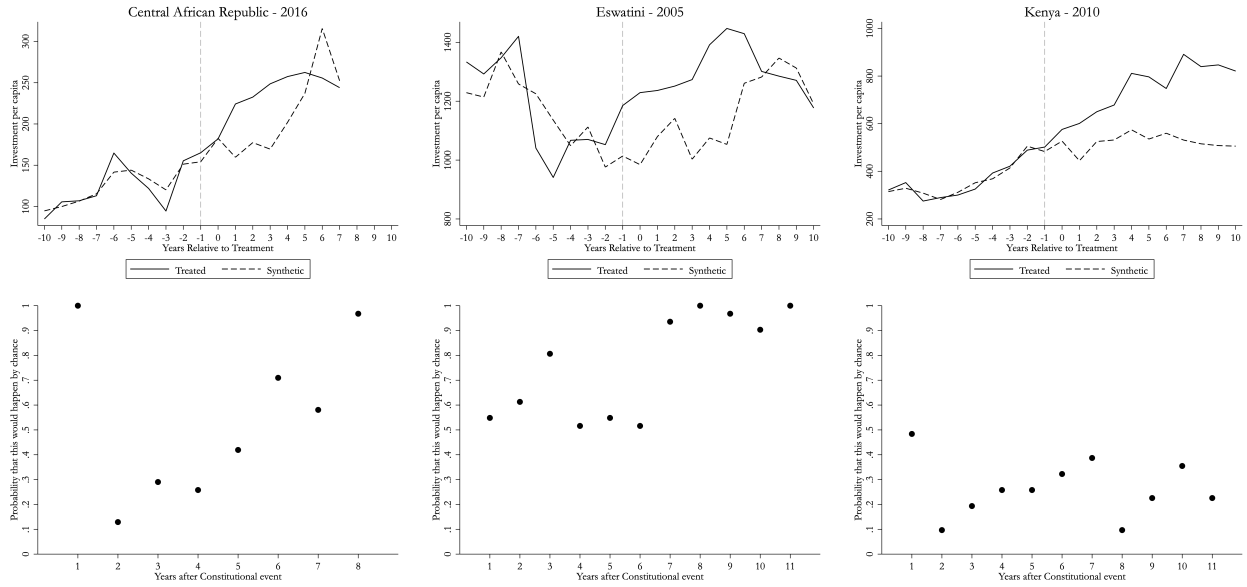
Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the treatment year ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t - 10$ through $t - 1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t - 10$ to $t - 1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t + 1$ to $t + 10$) window, with t as the treatment year.

Figure 10: Counter corruption effect on investment per capita in South Asia: Bhutan (2005), Maldives (2008), and Nepal (1990)



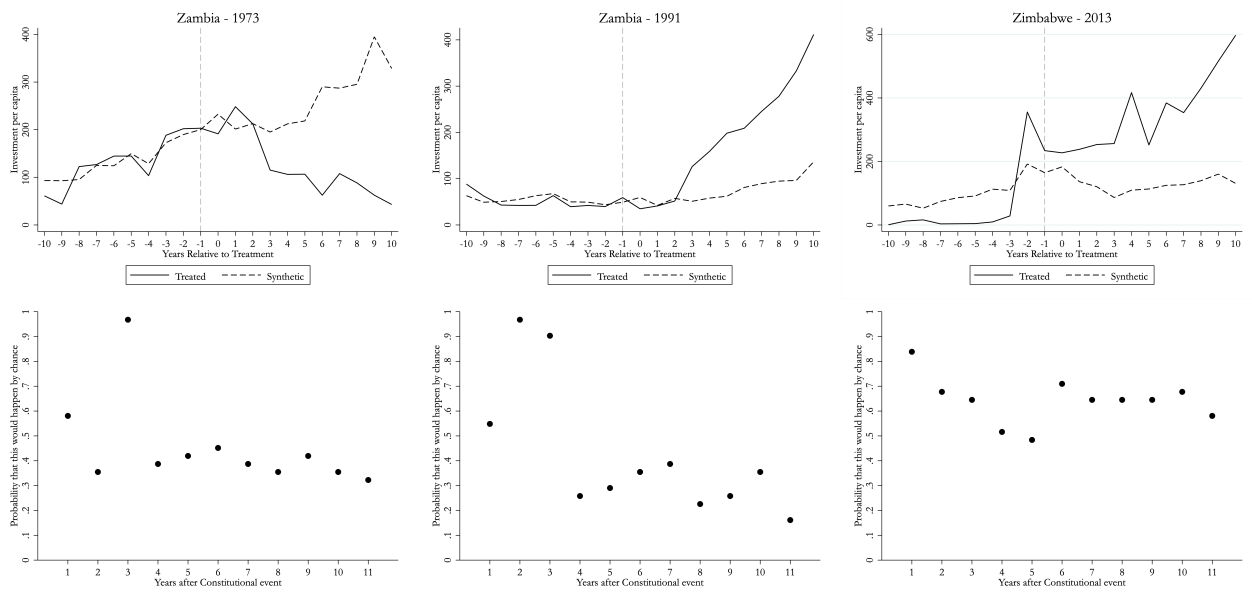
Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the treatment year ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t-10$ to $t-1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t+1$ to $t+10$) window, with t as the treatment year.

Figure 11: Counter corruption effect on investment per capita in Sub-Saharan Africa: Central African Republic (2016), Eswatini (2005), and Kenya (2010)



Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the treatment year ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t-10$ to $t-1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t+1$ to $t+10$) window, with t as the treatment year. CAF is an exception due to late adoption (2016); the post-treatment period is limited to $t+7$ or 2023.

Figure 12: Counter corruption effect on investment per capita in Sub-Saharan Africa for Special Cases: Zambia (1973; 1991) and Zimbabwe (2013)



Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter-corruption commission adoption via new Constitution. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that also adopted a new constitution but did *not* include a counter-corruption provision (see Table 1 for a list of potential donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the treatment year ($t = 0$). Bottom panels display placebo p-values computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment RMSPE as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized by the pre-treatment RMSPE to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications are in **Appendix B**. All treatments use a 10-year pre-treatment ($t-10$ to $t-1$) and 10-year post-treatment ($t+1$ to $t+10$) window, with t as the treatment year. CAF is an exception due to late adoption (2016); the post-treatment period is limited to $t+7$ or 2023.

Table 5: Summary of treatment effects for investment per capita

Years After Adoption	Positive	Negative	Significant Positive	Significant Negative	Total Estimated Effects
0	11	6	3	1	17
1	11	6	2	1	17
2	9	8	1	1	17
3	13	4	1	1	17
4	14	3	2	0	17
5	13	4	2	0	17
6	12	5	1	1	17
7	10	7	1	1	17
8	9	7	1	2	16
9	10	6	1	2	16
10	10	5	2	3	15

Notes: Significant effects are those with standardized placebo p-values ≤ 0.10. Totals fall below 17 in later years because two cases (Central African Republic (2016) and Ecuador (1998)) have shorter post-treatment windows. Afghanistan is not included in the Penn World Tables dataset and is thus excluded from these results.

Appendix

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A Supplementary Information for Main Results

A.1 Donor Weights for Figures 7 through 12

Table A1: Resulting Donor Weights for Amendment Treatments and Investment

Treatment	**Donor Weights**
Zimbabwe - 2000	Gabon (0.275) and Guinea-Bissau (0.725)
Namibia - 2010	Comoros (0.986) and Gabon (0.014)
Nepal - 1975	Myanmar – 1974 (0.976) and Myanmar – 2008 (0.024)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. These weights are calculated using our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative weights with different predictors and/or different donor pools are given in **Appendix B**.

Table A2: Resulting Donor Weights for New Constitutional Adoptions and Investment

Treatment	Donor Weights
Americas	
Ecuador – 1998	Bolivia – 2009 (0.135), Brazil – 1988 (0.029), Colombia (0.084), Guyana (0.074), Panama (0.280), Suriname (0.244), and Venezuela (0.154)
Ecuador – 2008[a]	Nicaragua (0.360), Paraguay – 1992 (0.095), Panama (0.141), and Venezuela (0.405)
Trinidad & Tobago	Panama (0.398), Paraguay – 1992 (0.403), and Uruguay (0.200)
Middle East and North Africa	
Egypt – 2012	Iran (0.128), Iraq (0.069), Pakistan (0.667), and Tunisia (0.136)
Morocco – 2011	Iran (0.152), Pakistan (0.263), and Tunisia (0.585)
South Asia	
Bhutan – 2005	Greece (0.284) and Serbia (0.716)
Maldives – 2008	Greece (0.246) and Serbia (0.754)
Nepal – 1990[a]	Bangladesh (0.042), Bulgaria (0.195), Myanmar – 1974 (0.148), Myanmar – 2008 (0.165), and Vietnam (0.449)
Sub-Saharan Africa	
Central African Republic – 2016	Burundi (0.036), Cameroon (0.205), Chad (0.055), Ethiopia (0.115), Malawi –1966 (0.209), and Sierra Leone (0.379)
Eswatini – 2005	Comoros – 1978 (0.476), Gabon (0.098), and Mauritania (0.426)
Kenya – 2010	Cape Verde (0.002), Comoros – 2001 (0.057), Congo – 2001 (0.011), Lesotho (0.273), Niger (0.019), Senegal (0.484), and Togo (0.155)
Zambia – 1973[a]	Burundi (0.448), Congo – 2001 (0.074), Cote d'Ivoire (0.028), Madagascar (0.148), Senegal (0.135), and Sierra Leone (0.168)
Zambia – 1991[a]	Benin (0.011), Burundi (0.135), Ethiopia (0.807), Malawi – 1966 (0.024), and Togo (0.023)
Zimbabwe – 2013[a]	Madagascar (0.326) and Sierra Leone (0.674)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. These weights are calculated using our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. The full set of donors is listed in Table 1. For each set of treatments within a region, as defined by the World Bank, we limit donors to also be from within that region. The exception to this is South Asia as there are insufficient donors. For South Asia, then, we instead use all World Bank regions that contain parts of Asia as potential donors for treatments in this group. Afghanistan is excluded here because this country lacks Penn World Tables investment data.
[a] These are special cases. They are new Constitutional events, but had counter corruptions in place before new Constitution.

B Alternative Specifications & Donor Samples

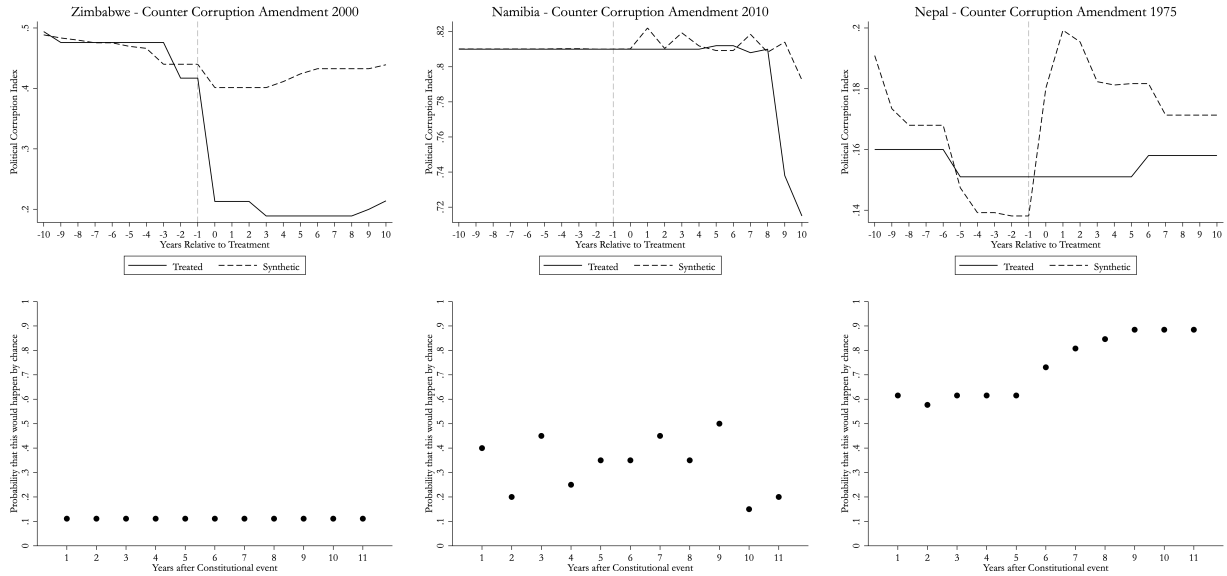
B.1 Changing the Donor Pool for Amendment Only Cases

Table B1: Alternative List of Donor Countries for Amendment Cases: Stable Constitutional Environments

Zimbabwe (2000)	**Namibia (2010)**	**Nepal (1975)**
Botswana	Benin	Australia
Cameroon	Botswana	Austria
Cape Verde	Cameroon	Belgium
Guinea-Bissau	Cape Verde	Cyprus
Liberia	Equatorial Guinea	Czech Republic
Mauritius	Eritrea	Denmark
Sao Tome & Principe	Ethiopia	France
Tanzania	Gabon	Germany
Zanzibar	Gambia	Hungary
	Guinea-Bissau	Iceland
	Lesotho	India
	Liberia	Indonesia
	Malawi	Ireland
	Mauritania	Italy
	Mauritius	Japan
	Sao Tome & Principe	Laos
	Sierra Leone	Luxembourg
	Tanzania	Malaysia
	Togo	Mongolia
	Zanzibar	Netherlands
		New Zealand
		Norway
		Poland
		Serbia
		South Korea
		Switzerland
		United Kingdom
N = 9	*N = 20*	*N = 27*

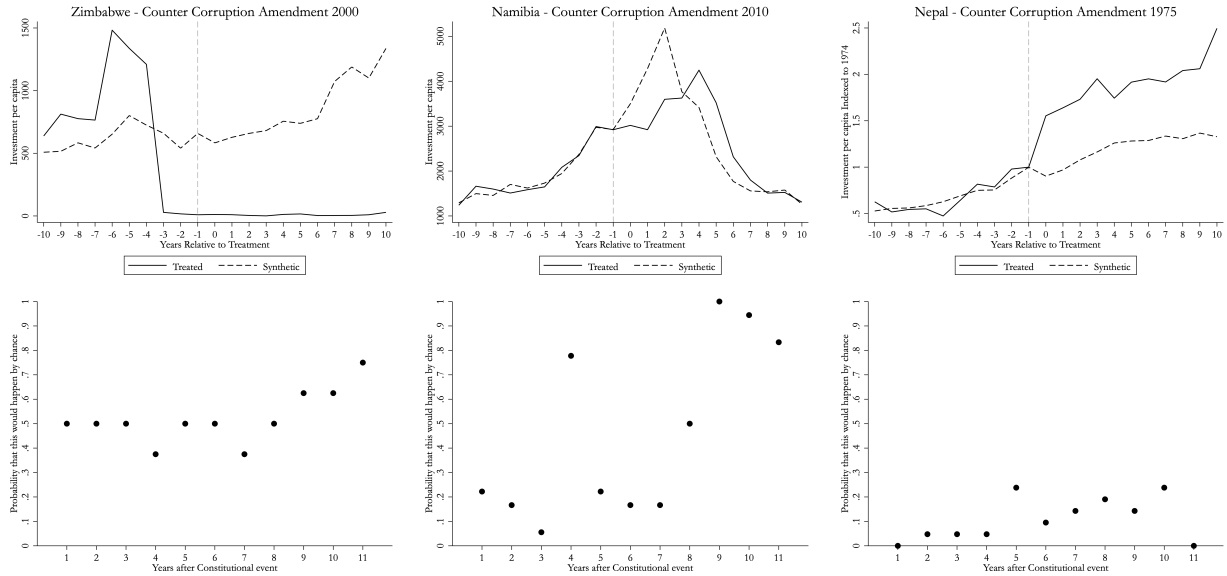
Notes: In this robustness check, we select donors according to four criteria. First, donor countries do not have a constitutionally mandated counter corruption commission at any point in the sample. Second, donor countries do not experience *major* constitutional change (i.e., new adoption or interim adoption) within the pre/post treatment window. Third, donor countries are categorized in the same World Bank region as the treatment country. Nepal's donor pool is expanded to all WB regions that include Asia: South Asia, East Asia & Pacific, and Europe & Central Asia because restricting to South Asia alone yields too few eligible donors. Lastly, donors must also have V-Dem corruption data available for all periods.

Figure B1: Counter corruption amendment effects on V-Dem's Political Corruption Index for Zimbabwe (2000), Namibia (2010), and Nepal (1975): Stable Constitution Donors



Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter corruption commission adoption via amendment. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that did not adopt a new constitution (see Table B1 for a list of donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the year prior to the counter corruption amendment ($t = 0$). Bottom panels show placebo p-values are computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment fit as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our estimated using the baseline predictor set where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t - 10$ through $t - 1$.

Figure B2: Counter corruption amendment effects on investment per capita for Zimbabwe (2000), Namibia (2010), and Nepal (1975): Stable Constitution Donors



Notes: Top panels show the synthetic control estimates for each case of a counter corruption commission adoption via amendment. The solid line is the treated unit and the dashed line is the synthetic control, constructed as a weighted combination of donor countries that did not adopt a new constitution (see Table B1 for a list of donor countries). The vertical dashed line marks the year prior to the counter corruption amendment ($t = 0$). Bottom panels show placebo p-values are computed by iteratively reassigning treatment to each donor unit and estimating the same model via Stata's `synth_runner` command. The p-value reflects the proportion of placebo estimates that produce a post-treatment fit as large or larger than the treated unit's. The p-values are standardized to account for pre-treatment fit. This is our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t - 10$ through $t - 1$.

B.2 Alternative Predictors

In this section, we replicate Figures 1 through 6 using an alternative set of predictors in place of the baseline specification. Our baseline synthetic controls match on the full set of pre-treatment outcome values. Here, we instead follow Pavlik et al. (2023) and Pavlik and Young (2025) by incorporating predictors that have been used previously to study the relationship between constitutional characteristics and corruption.

Specifically, we use Varieties of Democracy's polyarchy and civil participation indices, the Comparative Constitutions Project's measure of constitutional length, Freedom House's political rights and civil liberties scores, and the Polity IV Project's *polity2* score. The Maldives is not included in the Polity IV dataset and therefore does not use the *polity2* predictor. Following standard practice, these variables enter as averages over the pre-treatment period. To preserve information about the pre-treatment trajectory of the outcome, we additionally include four lagged values of the outcome variable corresponding to one, four, seven, and ten years prior to adoption.

Table B2: Resulting Donor Weights for Amendment Treatments and Political Corruption using Alternative Predictors

Treatment	**Donor Weights**
Zimbabwe - 2000	Burundi (0.145), Gambia – 1996 (0.052), Guinea (0.018), Lesotho (0.048), Niger (0.057), Sierra Leone (0.128), Tanzania (0.247), and Togo (0.306)
Namibia - 2010	Botswana (0.429), Gambia – 1970 (0.013), Mauritius (0.541), and Senegal (0.018)
Nepal - 1975	Myanmar – 1974 (0.542), Myanmar – 2008 (0.074), and The Philippines (0.383)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. The alternative predictor set includes: length of Constitution, V-Dem's polyarchy, V-Dem's civil participation, Freedom House's political rights and civil rights scores, and Polity IV's *polity2* score. The predictor set also includes four lagged outcomes (year -1, -4, -7, and -10).

Table B3: Resulting Donor Weights for New Constitutional Adoptions and Political Corruption using Alternative Predictors

Treatment	Donor Weights
Americas	
Ecuador – 1998	Argentina (0.047), Bolivia – 2009 (0.428), Nicaragua (0.126), Paraguay (0.162), and Peru (0.237)
Ecuador – 2008[a]	Brazil – 1988 (0.952), Panama (0.012), Paraguay – 1992 (0.036)
Trinidad & Tobago	Suriname (0.723) and Uruguay (0.277)
Middle East and North Africa	
Afghanistan – 2004	Syria (0.089), Libya – 2011 (0.452), Tunisia (0.285), and Turkmenistan (0.175)
Egypt – 2012	Iraq (0.636), Qatar – 2003 (0.128), Syria – 2012 (0.236)
Morocco – 2011	Qatar – 2003 (0.343), Tunisia (0.565), and Turkmenistan (0.092)
South Asia	
Bhutan – 2005	Albania – 1976 (0.503), Serbia (0.047), Spain (0.101), Sweden (0.185), and Vietnam (0.164)
Maldives – 2008	Kyrgyz Republic (0.544), Myanmar – 2008 (0.169), Serbia (0.021), and Spain (0.265)
Nepal – 1990[a]	Bangladesh (0.241), Czech Republic (0.023), Kyrgyz Republic (0.313), Myanmar – 1974 (0.062), Myanmar – 2008 (0.008), Philippines (0.262), and Serbia (0.092)
Sub-Saharan Africa	
Central African Republic – 2016	Mali (0.301), Sierra Leone (0.155), and Somalia – 2012 (0.544)
Eswatini – 2005	Gambia – 1996 (0.135), Guinea (0.120), Malawi (0.385), Sierra Leone (0.258), and Tanzania (0.102)
Kenya – 2010	Comoros – 2001 (0.540), Eritrea (0.067), Madagascar (0.091), and Sierra Leone (0.301)
Zambia – 1973[a]	Botswana (0.116), Gambia – 1970 (0.194), and Tanzania (0.690)
Zambia – 1991[a]	Benin (0.041), Botswana (0.185), Comoros (0.010), Madagascar (0.047), Malawi – 1994 (0.031), Mauritius (0.182), and Tanzania (0.504)
Zimbabwe – 2013[a]	Burundi (0.066), Cote d'Ivoire (0.009), Guinea (0.018), Madagascar (0.018), Sierra Leone (0.574), Somolia – 2012 (0.249), and Tanzania (0.006)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. The alternative predictor set includes: length of Constitution, V-Dem's polyarchy, V-Dem's civil participation, Freedom House's political rights and civil rights scores, and Polity IV's *polity2* score. The predictor set also includes four lagged outcomes (year -1, -4, -7, and -10). The full set of donors is listed in Table 1. For each set of treatments within a region, as defined by the World Bank, we limit donors to also be from within that region. The exception to this is South Asia as there are insufficient donors. For South Asia, then, we instead use all World Bank regions that contain parts of Asia as potential donors for treatments in this group.

[a] These are special cases. They are new Constitutional events, but had counter corruptions in place before new Constitution.

Table B4: Summary of treatment effects for political corruption and the use of other predictors

Years After Adoption	Positive	Negative	Significant Positive	Significant Negative	Total Estimated Effects
0	10	8	1	2	18
1	9	9	1	2	18
2	9	9	1	2	18
3	8	10	1	2	18
4	7	11	1	2	18
5	7	11	1	2	18
6	7	11	1	2	18
7	6	12	1	2	18
8	6	11	2	3	17
9	6	11	1	3	17
10	6	10	2	3	16

Notes: Significant effects are those with standardized placebo p-values $\leq .10$. Totals fall below 18 in later years because two cases (Central African Republic (2016) and Ecuador (1998)) have shorter post-treatment windows.

Table B5: Resulting Donor Weights for Amendment Treatments and Investment Using Alternative Predictors

Treatment	**Donor Weights**
Zimbabwe - 2000	Comoros – 1978 (0.130), Comoros – 2001 (0.119), and Liberia (0.751)
Namibia - 2010	Comoros – 1978 (1.000)
Nepal - 1975	Bangladesh (0.626) and Myanmar – 1974 (0.374)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. The alternative predictor set includes: length of Constitution, V-Dem's polyarchy, V-Dem's civil participation, Freedom House's political rights and civil rights scores, and Polity IV's *polity2* score. The predictor set also includes four lagged outcomes (year -1, -4, -7, and -10).

Table B6: Resulting Donor Weights for New Constitutional Adoptions and Investment using Alternative Predictors

Treatment	Donor Weights
Americas	
Ecuador – 1998	Bolivia – 2009 (0.439), Brazil – 1988 (0.091), Paraguay – 1992 (0.250), and Venezuela (0.220)
Ecuador – 2008[a]	Brazil – 1988 (0.203), Colombia (0.368), Paraguay – 1992 (0.277), and Venezuela (0.152)
Trinidad & Tobago	Bolivia – 2009 (0.102), Panama (0.0200), Paraguay – 1992 (0.780), and Uruguay (0.099)
Middle East and North Africa	
Afghanistan – 2004	
Egypt – 2012	Djibouti (0.168), Iran (0.227), Pakistan (0.240), Syria – 2012 (0.316), and Tunisia (0.050)
Morocco – 2011	Iraq (0.038), Oman (0.012), Pakistan (0.233), Syria – 2012 (0.034), and Tunisia (0.683)
South Asia	
Bhutan – 2005	Greece (0.468), Laos (0.370), Myanmar – 2008, and Serbia (0.149)
Maldives – 2008	Greece (0.283) and Serbia (0.717)
Nepal – 1990[a]	Bangladesh (0.941) and Sri Lanka (0.059)
Sub-Saharan Africa	
Central African Republic – 2016	Burundi (0.534), Comoros – 1978 (0.016), Cote d'Ivoire (0.171), Equatorial Guinea (0.231), and Lesotho (0.047)
Eswatini – 2005	Comoros – 1978 (0.528), Gabon (0.306), Lesotho (0.065), and Tanzania (0.100)
Kenya – 2010	Comoros – 2001 (0.147), Gambia – 1970 (0.013), Lesotho (0.213), Madagascar (0.258), Mauritius (0.004), and Senegal (0.366)
Zambia – 1973[a]	Burundi (0.064), Congo – 2001 (0.014), Cote d'Ivorie (0.060), Lesotho (0.143), Malawi – 1966 (0.136), and Sierra Leone (0.582)
Zambia – 1991[a]	Gabon (0.008), Mali (0.458), Sierra Leone (0.530), and Togo (0.003)
Zimbabwe – 2013[a]	Burundi (0.710), Madagascar (0.088), Malawi – 1966 (0.159), and Senegal (0.043)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. The alternative predictor set includes: length of Constitution, V-Dem's polyarchy, V-Dem's civil participation, Freedom House's political rights and civil rights scores, and Polity IV's *polity2* score. The predictor set also includes four lagged outcomes (year -1, -4, -7, and -10). The full set of donors is listed in Table 1. For each set of treatments within a region, as defined by the World Bank, we limit donors to also be from within that region. The exception to this is South Asia as there are insufficient donors. For South Asia, then, we instead use all World Bank regions that contain parts of Asia as potential donors for treatments in this group.

[a] These are special cases. They are new Constitutional events, but had counter corruptions in place before new Constitution.

Table B7: Summary of treatment effects for investment and the use of other predictors

Years After Adoption	Positive	Negative	Significant Positive	Significant Negative	Total Estimated Effects
0	13	4	3	0	17
1	11	6	3	0	17
2	11	6	4	0	17
3	14	3	3	0	17
4	15	2	3	0	17
5	13	4	2	0	17
6	12	5	1	0	17
7	10	7	0	0	17
8	10	6	1	1	16
9	10	6	1	1	16
10	11	4	2	2	15

Notes: Significant effects are those with standardized placebo p-values $\leq .10$. Totals fall below 18 in later years because two cases (Central African Republic (2016) and Ecuador (1998)) have shorter post-treatment windows.

B.3 No Region Restriction on Donor Pool

We return to our baseline set of predictors – all lagged outcomes – and expand the donor pool to include all events listed in Table 1.

Table B8: Resulting Donor Weights for Amendment Treatments and Political Corruption: All Donors Listed in Table 1 Included

Treatment	**Donor Weights**
Zimbabwe - 2000	Bolivia – 1967 (0.243), China (0.426), Czech Republic (0.009), El Salvador (0.096), Niger (0.164), Russia (0.018), Serbia (0.022), and Spain (0.022)
Namibia - 2010[a]	Botswana (0.041)
Nepal - 1975[a]	Chad (0.042), Kyrgyz Republic (0.088), and Paraguay – 1992 (0.043)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. These weights are calculated using our baseline set of predictors where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$.
[a] All donors received small, positive weights. These are the only ones to receive a weight greater than 0.04.

Table B9: Resulting Donor Weights for New Constitutional Adoptions and Political Corruption

Treatment	Donor Weights
Americas	
Ecuador – 1998	Congo – 2001 (0.013), Cote d'Ivoire (0.423), Ethiopia (0.093), Guinea (0.053), Madagascar (0.132), Nicaragua (0.014), Qatar (0.225), Russia (0.046), and Syria (0.001).
Ecuador – 2008[b]	Bolivia – 1967 (0.066), Iraq (0.315), Madagascar (0.127), Niger (0.076), and Spain (0.184)
Trinidad & Tobago 1976[b]	Sweden (0.548)
Middle East and North Africa	
Afghanistan – 2004	Madagascar (0.061), Nicaragua (0.160), Paraguay – 1967 (0.700), and Syria – 1973 (0.078)
Egypt – 2012	Iraq (0.847) and Spain (0.153)
Morocco – 2011	Chad (0.064), Cote d'Ivoire (0.143), El Salvador (0.005), Eritrea (0.080), Nicaragua (0.005), and Spain (0.003)
South Asia	
Bhutan – 2005[b]	Czech Republic (0.060) and Sweden (0.451)
Maldives – 2008[b]	Czech Republic (0.169), Pakistan (0.492), and Paraguay – 1992 (0.152)
Nepal – 1990[a]	Qatar (0.378) and Somalia – 2012 (0.416)
Sub-Saharan Africa	
Central African Republic – 2016	Chad (0.001), Iraq (0.087), Pakistan (0.484), Paraguay (0.349), Syria – 1973 (0.012), and Somalia – 2012 (0.066)
Eswatini – 2005[b]	Gambia (0.092) and Vanuatu (0.092)
Kenya – 2010	Czech Republic (0.037), Iraq (0.072), Liberia (0.006), Nicaragua (0.105), Niger (0.001), Pakistan (0.301), Panama (0.014), Philippines (0.299), Poland (0.005), and Serbia (0.160)
Zambia – 1973[c]	Albania – 1998 (0.056), Niger (0.219), and Sweden (0.725)
Zambia – 1991[a b]	Sweden (0.383)
Zimbabwe – 2013[a]	El Salvador (0.252), Paraguay – 1992 (0.099), and Somalia – 2012 (0.123)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. These weights are calculated using our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications with different predictors and their corresponding weights are given in **Appendix B**. The full set of donors is listed in Table 1. For each set of treatments within a region, as defined by the World Bank, we limit donors to also be from within that region. The exception to this is South Asia as there are insufficient donors. For South Asia, then, we instead use all World Bank regions that contain parts of Asia as potential donors for treatments in this group.

[a] These are special cases. They are new Constitutional events, but had counter corruptions in place before new Constitution.

[b] All or most donors received small, positive weights. These are the only ones to receive a weight of 0.060 or greater.

[c] This is a special case only because we do not have access the constitutional text outlining the countercorruption commission.

Table B10: Summary of treatment effects for political corruption with all donors

Years After Adoption	Positive	Negative	Significant Positive	Significant Negative	Total Estimated Effects
0	9	9	1	0	18
1	8	10	1	0	18
2	8	10	1	0	18
3	8	10	0	0	18
4	8	10	1	0	18
5	8	10	0	0	18
6	8	10	0	0	18
7	7	11	0	0	18
8	6	11	1	2	17
9	7	10	1	2	17
10	7	9	2	3	16

Notes: Significant effects are those with standardized placebo p-values $\leq .10$. Totals fall below 18 in later years because two cases (Central African Republic (2016) and Ecuador (1998)) have shorter post-treatment windows.

Table B11: Resulting Donor Weights for Amendment Treatments and Investment

Treatment	**Donor Weights**
Zimbabwe - 2000	El Salvador (0.721), Suriname (0.143), and Uruguay (0.135)
Namibia - 2010	Greece (0.117), Poland (0.194), and Serbia (0.689)
Nepal - 1975	Ethiopia (0.045), Myanmar – 1974 (0.506), and Sierra Leone (0.449)

Notes: All donors listed in Table 1 included. Weights are given in parentheses. These weights are calculated using our baseline set of predictors where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$.

Table B12: Resulting Donor Weights for New Constitutional Adoptions and Investment: All Donors Listed in Table 1 Included

Treatment	Donor Weights
Americas	
Ecuador – 1998	Bolivia – 2009 (0.247), Guyana (0.248), Panama (0.055), Poland (0.249), Suriname (0.141), and Venezuela (0.060)
Ecuador – 2008	Congo – 2001 (0.079), Greece (0.006), Nicaragua (0.355), Oman (0.018), Serbia (0.208), and Venezuela (0.334)
Trinidad & Tobago 1976	Greece (0.087), Iraq (0.040), Panama (0.662), and Tunisia (0.210)
Middle East and North Africa	
Egypt – 2012	Greece (0.107), Gambia – 1996 (0.160), Guinea-Bissau (0.029), Guyana (0.294), Iran (0.025), Senegal (0.241), Spain (0.002), Syria (0.140), and Venezuela (0.002)
Morocco – 2011	Congo – 2001 (0.104), Greece (0.074), Hungary (0.034), Iran (0.086), Iraq (0.017), Poland (0.164), Serbia (0.519), and Venezuela (0.002)
South Asia	
Bhutan – 2005	Greece (0.279), Iraq (0.132), and Serbia (0.589)
Maldives – 2008	Greece (0.246) and Serbia (0.754)
Nepal – 1990[b]	Burundi (0.350), Laos (0.113), Myanmar (0.207), and Sierra Leone (0.225)
Sub-Saharan Africa	
Central African Republic – 2016	Bangladesh (0.398), Burundi (0.032), El Salvador (0.025), Madagascar (0.064), Panama (0.011), Sierra Leone (0.453), Suriname (0.016), and Venezuela (0.002)
Eswatini – 2005	Congo – 2001 (0.142), Djibouti (0.274), Guyana (0.053), Iran (0.002), Nicaragua (0.031), Oman (0.017), Poland (0.257), Sweden (0.009), Syria – 2012 (0.170), and Venezuela (0.044)
Kenya – 2010	Bolivia – 2009 (0.150), Comoros – 2001 (0.037), Djibouti (0.021), Iraq (0.006), Kyrgyz Republic (0.241), Madagascar (0.257), Myanmar – 1974 (0.192), Panama (0.018), Serbia (0.033), and Syria – 1973 (0.045)
Zambia – 1973[c]	Burundi (0.252), Congo – 2001 (0.048), Cote d'Ivoire (0.141), Myanmar (0.260), Sierra Leone (0.295), and Venezuela (0.004)
Zambia – 1991[a]	Burundi (0.113), Djibouti (0.007), Ethiopia (0.481), Myanmar (0.395), and Oman (0.004)
Zimbabwe – 2013[a]	Madagascar (0.326) and Sierra Leone (0.674)

Notes: Weights are given in parentheses. These weights are calculated using our baseline specification where we match only on pre-treatment outcomes from $t-10$ through $t-1$. Alternative specifications with different predictors and their corresponding weights are given in **Appendix B**. The full set of donors is listed in Table 1. For each set of treatments within a region, as defined by the World Bank, we limit donors to also be from within that region. The exception to this is South Asia as there are insufficient donors. For South Asia, then, we instead use all World Bank regions that contain parts of Asia as potential donors for treatments in this group.

[a] These are special cases. They are new Constitutional events, but had counter corruptions in place before new Constitution.

[b] All or most donors received small, positive weights. These are the only ones to receive a weight of 0.060 or greater.

[c] This is a special case only because we do not have access the constitutional text outlining the countercorruption commission.

Table B13: Summary of treatment effects for investment with all donors

Years After Adoption	Positive	Negative	Significant Positive	Significant Negative	Total Estimated Effects
0	9	8	0	1	17
1	8	9	1	0	17
2	6	11	1	0	17
3	11	6	1	0	17
4	14	3	1	0	17
5	14	3	1	0	17
6	13	4	1	0	17
7	11	6	1	0	17
8	9	7	2	1	16
9	9	7	2	1	16
10	10	5	2	2	15

Notes: Significant effects are those with standardized placebo p-values $\leq .10$. Totals fall below 17 in later years because two cases (Central African Republic (2016) and Ecuador (1998)) have shorter post-treatment windows. Afghanistan is not included in the PWT and is therefore not included in this table.

B.4 Matching on Constitutions

One potential concern about the procedure above is that the constitutions with CCCPs (i.e. the treated countries) are substantially different from the constitutions (without CCCPs) adopted by donor countries. Ideally, we would want a set of donor constitutions that are identical to the ones from treated countries, but did not implement a CCCP.[18] To deal with this issue, we rely on data from the Comparative Constitutions Project to code some key constitutional characteristics of both treated and control countries. The variables are described in Table B14.

Then, we used Mahalanobis distance matching (MDM) to find the top $k \in \{15, 30, 50\}$ closest constitutions (nearest-neighbors) for *each* treated country. MDM attempts to minimize the distance between treatment and control constitutional characteristic. We report the results in Table B15. While most point estimates are positive, virtually all are insignificant, again pointing towards null results.

[18] Alternatively, matching on the constitution in force the year before adoption (i.e., matching on the "old" constitution) yields a smaller sample than matching on the newly adopted text. We lose 2 of the 18 treated cases, Ecuador (1998) and Eswatini (2005), and 42 of the 101 donors, because the Comparative Constitutions Project does not code the relevant document in the prior year: 10 donors have no country-year record at $t-1$, and 32 donors, along with both excluded treated cases, have records with blank constitutional content. Matching therefore draws on 59 usable donors. The top-50 sample covers about 85 percent of the pool. In addition, the document at $t-1$ is the same as the one at adoption in the three amendment cases (Zimbabwe 2000, Nepal 1975 and Namibia 2010). Although the donors selected differ considerably from those in the main specification, the results are substantively the same. Treatment effects remain concentrated among a few cases and show little evidence of a systematic effect: there are no significant effects in the top-15 sample, two significant year-effects in the top-30 sample (both Namibia 2010), and eleven in the top-50 sample (all Zambia 1991). These results are available upon request.

Table B14: Summary Statistics

	Treated	All Donors	Top 15	Top 30	Top 50
N (Pool)	18	100	18x15=270	18x30=540	18x50=900
N (Unique Countries)	18	100	74	81	87
Characteristics of Constitution					
Year enacted	2000.333	1988.653	1989.815	1988.957	1988.701
Length of Constitution (words)	28894.611	18105.000	18329.867	18483.278	18341.442
Organization of the State					
Head of govt. is head of state	0.444	0.337	0.333	0.310	0.325
State is a monarchy	0.167	0.010	0.026	0.020	0.018
Presence of a legislature	1.000	0.901	1.000	1.000	0.999
Bicameral legislature	0.667	0.307	0.300	0.289	0.291
Defines official or protected religion	0.333	0.198	0.126	0.132	0.152
Ref. to Executive independence	0.056	0.149	0.052	0.071	0.092
Balance of power and oversight					
Either HoG or HoS can dismiss legislature[1]	0.722	0.446	0.544	0.549	0.523
Ref. to Judiciary independence	0.833	0.802	0.863	0.842	0.861
Allows referenda	0.722	0.683	0.822	0.809	0.784
Presence of Ombudsman	0.389	0.337	0.367	0.365	0.375
Presence of media commission	0.278	0.158	0.215	0.176	0.181
Presence of regulatory agencies	0.889	0.584	0.685	0.686	0.665
Elections					
Universal adult suffrage	0.667	0.644	0.807	0.777	0.763
Secret ballots	0.833	0.762	0.922	0.922	0.903
Presence of elec. court or commission	0.722	0.465	0.504	0.510	0.508
No limits on campaign finance	0.722	0.842	0.937	0.952	0.953
Rights and freedoms					
Presence of human right commission	0.444	0.079	0.107	0.082	0.077
Criminal trial by jury	0.000	0.188	0.200	0.208	0.199
No punishment without law[2]	0.667	0.624	0.707	0.690	0.685
Mentions rule of law	0.722	0.436	0.489	0.495	0.469
Mentions equality before the law	1.000	1.000	1.000	1.000	1.000
Freedom of expression	1.000	0.851	1.000	1.000	0.998
Freedom of the press	0.778	0.624	0.763	0.753	0.735
Freedom of assembly	1.000	0.842	1.000	0.996	0.986
Freedom of association	0.944	0.871	0.993	0.996	0.996
No explicit prohibition on censorship	0.667	0.535	0.663	0.660	0.648
Economic institutions					
Reference to socialism	0.000	0.178	0.111	0.180	0.211
Ref. protection or promotion of foreign invest.	0.278	0.139	0.178	0.156	0.152

Notes: This table compares the characteristics of constitutions across all 18 treated units, and multiple donor samples described in Appendix B.4. Unique counts consider different constitutional events of the same country (e.g. Nepal 1975 and Nepal 1990) as different countries. Data from the Comparative Constitutions Project. [1] HoG = Head of Government, HoS = Head of State; [2] Reference to *nulla poena sine lege*.

Table B15: Summary of treatment effects for political corruption, similar constitutions

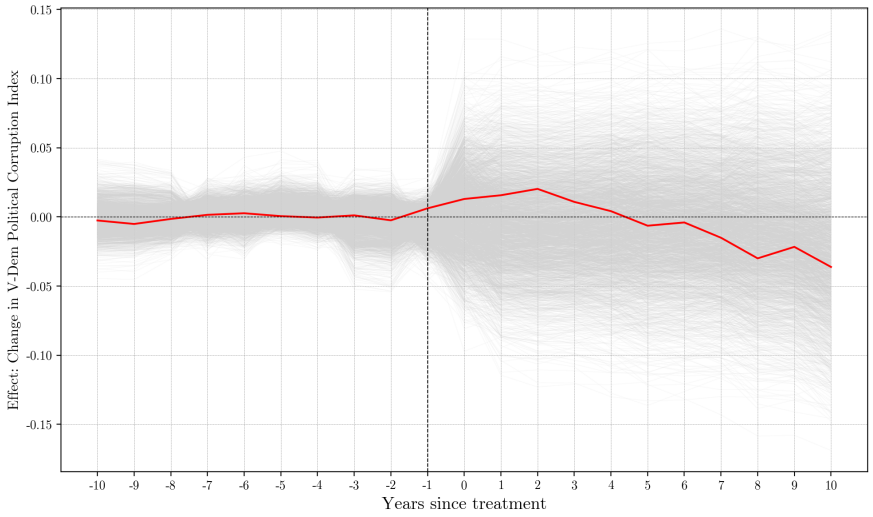
Years After Adoption	Positive	Negative	Significant Positive	Significant Negative	Total Estimated Effects
Panel A: Top 15 most similar constitutions					
0	9	9	0	2	18
1	10	8	1	1	18
2	10	8	1	1	18
3	11	7	1	1	18
4	11	7	1	1	18
5	11	7	1	1	18
6	10	8	1	1	18
7	10	8	1	1	18
8	10	7	1	1	17
9	11	6	2	1	17
10	11	6	2	0	17
Panel B: Top 30 most similar constitutions					
0	12	6	2	0	18
1	13	5	3	0	18
2	13	5	2	0	18
3	12	6	2	0	18
4	13	5	2	0	18
5	13	5	2	0	18
6	13	5	2	0	18
7	13	5	2	0	18
8	12	5	2	0	17
9	11	6	2	0	17
10	12	5	2	0	17
Panel C: Top 50 most similar constitutions					
0	11	7	2	0	18
1	11	7	2	0	18
2	10	8	2	0	18
3	10	8	3	0	18
4	11	7	3	0	18
5	10	8	1	1	18
6	10	8	1	1	18
7	11	7	1	1	18
8	10	7	1	1	17
9	10	7	1	1	17
10	11	6	1	1	17

Notes: Significant effects are those with standardized placebo p-values ≤ 0.10. Totals fall below 17 in later years because two cases (Central African Republic (2016) and Ecuador (1998)) have shorter post-treatment windows.

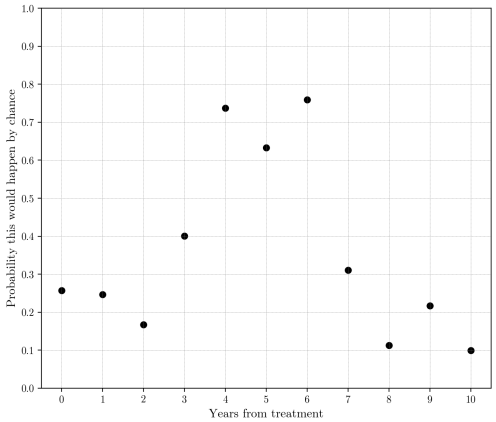
B.5 Average Treatment Effect for Main Results

Here we report average treatment effects for our main results, which use region-specific donor pools. We first average the data for the 18 treated cases and their synthetic controls to calculate the average effect sizes. Then, we draw inference similar to the permutation process used in the main results. However, in this case, to take into account the averaging process, which may smooth the distribution, we construct our placebos by sampling one donor from each of the donor pools to create average placebo gaps (see, e.g. Cavallo et al., 2013; Cachanosky et al., 2025). Since this method would generate approximately 5.87×10^{25} possible placebo combinations,[19] we conduct our inference with a random sample of 50,000 placebos.

Figure B3 reports the average treatment effect (red) and a random sample of our placebo effects for comparison (gray) in the top panel and the associated p-values in the bottom one. As in the main results, we find no evidence that anti-corruption clauses significantly affect corruption.



Panel (a): Average Treatment Effect and Placebos



Panel (b): Standardized p-values

Figure B3: Average Treatment Effect and p-values for main results

Notes: Panel (a) shows the average treatment effect (red) for our main results and a random sample of placebo effects, calculated by randomly sampling 50,000 combinations of donors, constructed by drawing one from each of the 18 donor pools. Panel (b) shows the associated standardized p-values.

[19] This is the product of the 18 donor pool sizes: $38 \cdot 28 \cdot 38 \cdot 14 \cdot 28 \cdot 38 \cdot 20 \cdot 20 \cdot 14 \cdot 38 \cdot 38 \cdot 28 \cdot 14 \cdot 28 \cdot 20 \cdot 38 \cdot 38 \cdot 38$.

C Copies of Relevant Constitutional Text

C.1 Amendment Texts for Part 1

Table C1: Treatment Timing for Adoptions via Constitutional Amendments

Country	Region	Treatment year	Commission Name
Zimbabwe	Africa	2000	Anti-Corruption Commission
Namibia	Africa	2010	Anti-Corruption Commission
Nepal	Asia	1975	Prevention of Abuse of Authority Commission

Table C2: Common Phrases and Goals in Adoptions via Amendment

Theme	Common phrasing	Countries using related language
Creation of a commission	"there shall be" a commission or an Anti-Corruption Commission; an Anti-Corruption Commission established by Act of Parliament	Nepal; Zimbabwe; Namibia
Prevention and control	prevention of "abuse of authority"; measures to "prevent and combat corruption"	Nepal; Namibia; Zimbabwe
Misconduct in public power	"abuse of power," "misappropriation," "improprieties," and "abuse of authority"	Nepal; Zimbabwe
Investigative capacity	investigations or inquiries, including on complaints or through powers later provided by statute	Zimbabwe; Nepal; Namibia
Institutional design	appointment rules, qualifications, tenure, powers, functions, and reporting requirements	Nepal; Zimbabwe; Namibia
Independence and impartiality	explicit description as an "independent and impartial body"	Namibia

ZIMBABWE, 1980 CONSTITUTION, 2000 AMENDMENT[20]

108A Anti-Corruption Commission

1. There shall be an Anti-Corruption Commission consisting of at least four and not more than nine members appointed by the President.
2. Persons appointed to the Anti-Corruption Commission shall be persons of integrity chosen for their knowledge of and experience in administration or the prosecution or investigation of crime or for their general suitability for appointment, and—
   (a) at least one shall be entitled to practise as a legal practitioner; and
   (b) at least one shall be entitled to practise as an auditor or public accountant in Zimbabwe; and
   (c) at least one shall have had not less than ten years' experience in the investigation of crime.
3. The Anti-Corruption Commission shall have the following functions—
   (a) to combat corruption, theft, misappropriation, abuse of power and other improprieties in the conduct of affairs in both the public and private sectors;
   (b) to make recommendations to the Government and to organisations in the private sector on measures to enhance integrity and accountability and to prevent improprieties; and
   (c) to exercise any other functions that may be conferred or imposed on the Commission by or under an Act of Parliament.
4. An Act of Parliament may confer powers on the Anti-Corruption Commission, including power—
   (a) to conduct investigations and inquiries on its own initiative or on receipt of complaints;
   (b) to require assistance from members of the Police Force and other investigative agencies of the State; and
   (c) through the Attorney-General, to secure the prosecution of persons for corruption, theft, misappropriation, abuse of power and other improprieties.

[20]This text is copied from Zimbabwe (1980).

Namibia, 1990 Constitution, 2010 Amendment[21]

Chapter 10A. Anti-Corruption Measures

Article 94A. Anti-Corruption Measures

1. The State shall put in place administrative and legislative measures necessary to prevent and combat corruption.
2. There shall be established by an Act of Parliament an Anti-Corruption Commission with its powers and functions provided for in such Act.
3. The Anti-Corruption Commission shall be an independent and impartial body.
4. The Anti-Corruption Commission shall consist of a Director, a Deputy Director and other staff members of the Commission.
5. The National Assembly shall appoint the Director of the Anti-Corruption Commission and the Deputy Director upon nomination by the President.
6. The Director of the Anti-Corruption Commission and the Deputy Director shall be appointed for a period of five years and their qualifications for appointment and conditions and termination of service shall be determined in accordance with an Act of Parliament.

[21] This text is copied from Namibia (1990).

ASIA

Nepal, 1962 Constitution, 1975 Amendment[22]

Part 10 C
PREVENTION OF ABUSE OF AUTHORITY COMMISSION
67C. Prevention of Abuse of Authority Commission:

1. In order to prevent Abuse of Authority, there shall be a Commission on the Prevention of Abuse of Authority (hereinafter referred to as the Commission), consisting of a Chief Commissioner and, if required, such number of other Commissioners as may be specified by His Majesty.
2. The Chief Commissioner and other Commissioners shall be appointed by His Majesty and, if desired by Him, after consultations with the Raj Sabha.
3. The term of office, remuneration and other conditions of service of the Chief Commissioner and other Commissioners, and the functions, duties, powers and procedure of the Commission shall be as specified in the rules made by His Majesty.
4. Subject to the rules made pursuant to clause (3), the Commission may delegate all or any of its powers to any person or office.
5. The Commission shall submit an Annual Report regarding its activities to His Majesty.

[22]This text is copied from Nepal (1962).

C.2 Relevant Sections for Adoptions via New Constitutional Systems

Table C3: Treatment Timing for Adoptions via New Constitutional Systems

Country	Treatment Year	Commission Name
Americas		
Ecuador	1998	Civic Commission for the Control of Corruption
Ecuador[a]	2008	Not a named commission but a section of government.
Trinidad and Tobago	1976	Integrity Commission
Middle East, North Africa, and Asia		
Afghanistan	2004	Asset declaration organ for senior officials
Egypt	2012	National Anti-Corruption Commission
Morocco	2011	National Instance of Probity, Prevention and Struggle Against Corruption
South Asia		
Bhutan	2005	Anti-Corruption Commission
Maldives	2008	Anti-Corruption Commission
Nepal[a]	1990	Commission for the Investigation of Abuse of Authority
Sub-Saharan Africa		
Central African Republic	2016	High Authority responsible for Good Governance
Eswatini	2005	Commission on Human Rights and Public Administration
Kenya	2010	Ethics and Anti-Corruption Commission
Zambia[b]	1973	Not Available
Zambia[a]	1991[b]	Anti-Corruption Commission
Zimbabwe[a]	2013	Anti-Corruption Commission

[a] Ecuador (2008), Nepal (1990), Zambia (1991), and Zimbabwe (2013)'s treatments are special cases in that they are new Constitutions but have major changes in existing counter corruption commissions. Zambia (1973)'s treatment is different because we do not have access to the text of the 1973 commission.
[b] Zambia's 1991 constitution was revised in 2016.

Table C4: Common Phrases and Goals in Adoptions via New Constitutional Systems

Theme	Common Phrases	Countries using Related Language
Independent body	"independent authority," "independent and impartial institution," or institution independent of political power	Bhutan; Central African Republic; Ecuador; Eswatini; Kenya; Maldives; Zimbabwe
Prevention and combatting corruption	"prevent and combat corruption," "struggle against corruption," "eliminate corruption," and similar formulations	Bhutan; Ecuador; Egypt; Eswatini; Kenya[a]; Maldives; Morocco; Zimbabwe
Complaints and investigations	receiving complaints, inquiring into allegations, investigating suspected corruption, or reviewing declarations	Ecuador; Eswatini; Maldives; Nepal; Trinidad and Tobago; Zimbabwe
Prosecution and referral	requests for prosecution, referral to prosecutorial authorities, or prosecution based on commission findings	Bhutan; Ecuador; Eswatini; Maldives; Zimbabwe
Asset and interest disclosure	declarations of wealth, patrimony, assets, liabilities, income, or registers of interests	Afghanistan; Central African Republic; Trinidad and Tobago
Integrity, transparency, and good governance	promotion of integrity, transparency, probity, good governance, public service values, and responsible citizenship	Central African Republic; Ecuador; Egypt; Eswatini; Maldives; Morocco; Trinidad and Tobago; Zimbabwe
Public administration and abuse of power	corruption linked to public administration, public affairs, abuse of office, misappropriation of public money, or conflicts of interest	Central African Republic; Ecuador; Egypt; Eswatini; Morocco; Nepal[b]; Trinidad and Tobago; Zimbabwe
Reporting and accountability	annual reports, reports to Parliament or heads of state, public findings, or public declarations	Bhutan; Central African Republic; Ecuador; Eswatini; Trinidad and Tobago; Zimbabwe

[a] Kenya's 2010 provision (Article 79) is an enabling clause establishing an "independent ethics and anti-corruption commission"; it is placed here on the basis of that anti-corruption mandate rather than explicit prevention/combatting phrasing.
[b] Nepal's 1990 provision (Article 97) establishes the Commission for the Investigation of Abuse of Authority but specifies its functions by law; placement reflects the commission's abuse-of-authority mandate.
[c] Zambia (1973 and 1991) is not represented: the 1973 text is unavailable, and the 1991 provision (Article 235) only names the investigative commissions without descriptive language.

AMERICAS

Ecuador, 1998 Constitution[23]

Chapter 4: The Civic Commission for the Control of Corruption
Article 220. — The Civic Commission for the Control of Corruption is a public-law legal entity, headquartered in the city of Quito, with economic, political, and administrative autonomy and independence. Acting on behalf of the citizenry, it shall promote the elimination of corruption; receive complaints concerning allegedly unlawful acts committed within state institutions, in order to investigate them and request their prosecution and punishment. It may promote the establishment of its organization in provinces and cantons. The law shall determine its composition, administration, and functions; the civil society institutions that shall make the appointments; and the length of the terms of its members, who shall enjoy the jurisdictional privileges (fuero) of the Supreme Court.

Ecuador, 2008 Constitution[24]

Chapter 5: Transparency and Social Control Branch of Government
Section 1: Nature and Duties
Article 204. The people are the mandator and prime auditor of public power, in the exercise of their right to participation. The Transparency and Social Control Branch of Government shall promote and foster monitoring of public entities and bodies and of natural persons or legal entities of the private sector who provide services or carry out activities for the general welfare, so they shall conduct them with responsibility, transparency and equity; it shall foster and encourage public participation; it shall protect the exercise and fulfillment of rights; and it shall prevent and combat corruption. The Transparency and Social Control Branch shall be comprised of the Council for Public Participation and Social Control, the Office of the Human Rights Ombudsman, the Office of the Comptroller General, and the Superintendencies. These entities shall have a legal status and administrative, financial, budgetary and organizational autonomy.

Article 205. The representatives of the entities that are part of the Transparency and Social Control Branch shall perform their duties for a period of five years, shall benefit from immunity from prosecution in the National Court and shall be subject to impeachment by the National Assembly. In the event this impeachment occurs, with the ensuing removal from office, a new process to designate the representative shall take place. In no case can the Legislative Branch designate the respective replacement. Its supreme authorities must be Ecuadorian nationals who are in possession of their political rights and shall be selected by means of a competitive

[23]This text is copied from Ecuador (1998). It has been translated from Spanish by the authors.
[24]This text is copied from Ecuador (2008).

and merit-based examination with the submittal of candidacies, subject to citizen oversight and challenge.

Article 206. The standing representatives of the entities of the Transparency and Social Control Branch shall establish a coordination body and shall choose, from among themselves every year, the Chair of the Branch. The following shall be the attributions and duties of the coordination body, in addition to those provided for by law:

1. To draw up public policies for transparency, monitoring, accountability, promotion of public participation and the fight against corruption.
2. To coordinate the plan of action of the entities of the Branch, without undermining their autonomy.
3. To articulate the drafting of the national plan for combating corruption.
4. To submit to the National Assembly proposals for legal reforms in the framework of its competencies.
5. To report annually to the National Assembly about the activities regarding fulfillment of its duties and whenever the latter requests this report.

Section 2: Council for Public Participation and Social Control

Article 207. The Council for Public Participation and Social Control shall promote and encourage the exercise of the rights involving public participation, shall promote and set up social control mechanisms in matters of general welfare, and shall designate the authorities that pertain to it in accordance with the Constitution and the law. The Council's structure shall be deconcentrated and shall be in line with the performance of its duties. The Council shall be comprised of seven standing council persons and seven alternates. The standing members shall elect from among themselves the Chair, who shall be the Council's legal representative for a term that shall extend to the middle of his/her term of office. The selection of council persons shall be done from among candidates proposed by social organizations and the citizenry. The selection process shall be organized by the National Electoral Council, which will conduct the competitive and merit-based public examination process, with submittal of candidacies, subject to citizen oversight and challenge in accordance with the law.

Article 208. The Council for Public Participation and Social Control shall have the following duties and attributions, in addition to those provided for by law:

1. To promote public participation, encourage public deliberation processes and foster citizenship training, values, transparency, and the fight against corruption.
2. To establish mechanisms for the accountability of public sector institutions and entities and to contribute to citizen oversight and social monitoring processes.
3. To urge the other entities of the Branch to act obligatorily on matters that merit intervention in the opinion of the Council.
4. To investigate reports about deeds or omissions affecting public participation or leading to corruption.
5. To issue reports that point to evidence of liability, to draft the necessary recommendations and to promote the corresponding legal proceedings.

6. To act as a procedural party in cases filed as consequence of its investigations. When a ruling determines that, in the perpetration of crime, there was improper appropriation of resources, the competent authority shall proceed to seize the personal assets of the sentenced party.
7. To contribute to the protection of persons who report deeds of corruption (whistleblowers).
8. To request from any of the entities or officials of State institutions information that it deems necessary for its investigations or proceedings. The persons and institutions shall cooperate with the Council and those who refuse to do so shall be punishable by law.
9. To organize the process and oversee the transparency in the implementation of the activities of citizen commissions for the selection of state authorities.
10. To designate the principal authority of the Office of the State Prosecutor and the Superintendencies from among the shortlists proposed by the President of the Republic, after the corresponding citizen challenge and oversight process.
11. To designate the principal authority of the Office of the Human Rights Ombudsman, the Office of the Attorney for the Defense of the People, the Attorney General's Office, and the Office of the Comptroller General, after completing the corresponding selection process.
12. To designate the members of the National Electoral Council, the Electoral Dispute Settlement Court, and the Judiciary Council, after completing the corresponding selection process.

Article 209. To perform its duties as designated, the Council for Public Participation and Social Control shall organize citizen selection commissions, which shall be in charge of conducting, in those cases that pertain to them, the public competitive and merit-based examination with the submittal of candidacies, citizen oversight and the right to challenge by the citizenry. The citizen selection commissions shall be comprised of one delegate for each State branch of government and an identical number of representatives for social organizations and the citizenry, chosen by the public drawing of lots from among those submitting their candidacies and meeting the requirements provided for by the Council and the law. The candidates shall be subject to public scrutiny and citizen challenge. The commissions shall be directed by one of the representatives of the citizenry, who shall have the tie-breaking vote, and its sessions shall be open to the public.

Article 210. In those cases of selection of an authority by competitive and merit-based examination, the Council for Public Participation and Social Control shall choose the one who obtains the highest score in the respective examination and shall report this to the National Assembly for the respective swearing in office. When dealing with the selection of senior management committees directing State entities, the Council shall designate the standing members and alternates, by priority, from among those who obtain the highest scores in the examination. The alternates shall replace the standing members whenever relevant, in compliance with the order of their qualification and designation. Those who are holding office shall not be able to submit their candidacies for public competitive and merit-based examinations called to designate their substitutes. Conditions of equity and parity between women and men, as well as equality of conditions, shall be guaranteed for the participation of Ecuadorians living abroad.

Section 3: Office of the Comptroller General
Article 211. The Office of the Comptroller General is a technical body in charge of monitoring use of State resources and achieving the goals of State institutions and private-law legal entities that dispose of government resources. **Article 212.** The following shall be the duties of the Office of the Comptroller General, in addition to those provided for by law:

1. To direct the administrative surveillance system, comprised of internal auditing, external auditing and internal monitoring of public sector institutions and those private-sector entities that dispose of government resources.
2. To determine administrative and civil liabilities of neglect and gather evidence of criminal liability, related to those aspects and activities subject to its control, without detriment to the duties that, in this matter, pertain to the Attorney-General's Office.
3. To issue the rules and regulations for the performance of its duties.
4. To advise the bodies and entities of the State when said advice is requested.

Section 4: Superintendencies
Article 213. Superintendencies are technical bodies of surveillance, auditing, intervention, and monitoring of economic, social, and environmental activities and of the services provided by public and private entities, for the purpose of ensuring that these activities and services comply with the provisions of the legal system and work for the general welfare. Superintendencies act by virtue of their office or at the request of the citizenry. The specific powers of the Superintendencies and the areas that require monitoring, auditing, and surveillance of each one of them shall be determined in accordance with the law. The Superintendencies shall be led and represented by superintendents. The law shall set the requirements that must be met by those who wish to be at the head of these institutions. The superintendents shall be appointed by the Council for Public Participation and Social Control from a shortlist that shall be sent by the President of the Republic, drawn up on the basis of criteria of special skills and merits and subject to public scrutiny and the right to challenge by citizens.

Section 5: Office of the Human Rights Ombudsman
Article 214. The Office of the Human Rights Ombudsman shall be a body governed by public law with national jurisdiction, legal status and administrative and financial autonomy. Its structure shall be deconcentrated and it shall have delegates in each province and abroad. **Article 215.** The Office of the Human Rights Ombudsman shall have as its duties the protection and guardianship of the rights of the inhabitants of Ecuador and the defense of the rights of Ecuadorian nationals living abroad. It shall have the following attributions, in addition to those provided for by law:

1. To support, by virtue of its office or at the request of a party, the actions of protection, habeas corpus, access to public information, habeas data, non-compliance, citizen action and complaints for poor quality or improper provision of public or private services.
2. To issue measures of mandatory and immediate compliance for the protection of rights and to request trial and punishment from the competent authority for their violations.

3. To investigate and rule, in the framework of its attributions, on the deeds or omissions of natural persons or legal entities that provide public services.
4. To exercise and promote surveillance of due process of law and to immediately prevent and stop all forms of cruel, inhumane and degrading treatment.

Article 216. To be designated as Human Rights Ombudsman, one must meet the same requirements as those stipulated for judges of the National Court of Justice and demonstrate wide-ranging experience in defending human rights. The Human Rights Ombudsman shall be immune from prosecution in the National Court of Justice and shall benefit from the privilege of immunity in accordance with the terms provided for by law.

Trinidad and Tobago, 1976 Constitution[25]

CHAPTER 10. THE INTEGRITY COMMISSION

138. The Integrity Commission

1. There shall be an Integrity Commission (in this section and in section 139 referred to as "the Commission") for Trinidad and Tobago consisting of such number of members, qualified and appointed in such manner and holding office upon such tenure as may be prescribed.
2. The Commission shall be charged with the duty of—
   (a) receiving from time to time, declarations in writing of the assets, liabilities and income of members of the House of Representatives, Ministers of Government, Parliamentary Secretaries, [Senators, Judges, Magistrates, Permanent Secretaries, Chief Technical Officers, Members of the Tobago House of Assembly, Members of Municipalities, Members of Local Government Authorities and members of the Boards of all Statutory Bodies, State Enterprises and the holders of such other offices as may be prescribed;
   (b) the supervision of all matters connected therewith as may be prescribed;
   (c) the supervision and monitoring of standards of ethical conduct prescribed by Parliament to be observed by the holders of offices referred to in paragraph (a), as well as [deleted] members of the Diplomatic Service, Advisers to the Government and any person appointed by a Service Commission or the Statutory Authorities' Service Commission;
   (d) the monitoring and investigating of conduct, practices and procedures which are dishonest or corrupt.

139. Power to make laws relating to Commission

Subject to this Constitution, Parliament may make provision for—

(a) the procedure in accordance with which the Commission is to perform its functions;
(b) conferring such powers on the Commission and imposing such duties on persons concerned as are necessary to enable the Commission to carry out effectively the purposes of section 138;

[25] This text is copied from Trinidad and Tobago (1976).

(c) the proper custody of declarations and other documents delivered to the Commission;

(d) the maintenance of secrecy in respect of all information received by the Commission in the course of its duties with respect to the assets, liabilities and income of any member of Parliament and any other person; and

(e) the preparation by the Commission, of a Register of Interests for public inspection.

(f) generally to give effect to the provisions of section 138.

MIDDLE EAST AND NORTH AFRICA

Afghanistan, 2004 Constitution[26]

Chapter XI. Miscellaneous Provisions

Article 154 The wealth of the President, Vice-Presidents, Ministers, members of the Supreme Court as well as the Attorney General, shall be registered, reviewed and published prior to and after their term of office by an organ established by law.

Egypt, 2012 Constitution[27]

Chapter 2. Regulatory Agencies

Section 1. The National Anti-Corruption Commission

Article 204. Mandate The National Anti-Corruption Commission combats corruption, deals with conflicts of interest, promotes and defines the standards of integrity and transparency, develops the national strategy concerned with such matters, ensures the implementation of said strategy in coordination with other independent bodies, and supervises the concerned agencies specified by law.

Section 2. Central Auditing Organization

Article 205. Mandate The Central Auditing Organization has control over state funds and any other body specified by law.

Morocco, 2011 Constitution[28]

Article 36 The infractions relative to conflicts of interest, to insider crimes [delits d'initie] and all infractions of financial order are sanctioned by the law. The public powers are held to prevent and to reprimand, in accordance with the law, all forms of delinquency arising from the activity of the administrations and of the pubic organs [organismes], from the use of funds which they control [disposent], as well as from transfers [passation] and from the management of public markets. Influence trafficking and [trafficking] in privileges, the abuse of a dominant position and of monopoly, and all the other practices contrary to the principles of free and fair competition in economic relations, are sanctioned by the law. A National Instance of Probity, of Prevention and for the struggle against Corruption [Instance nationale de la probite, de la prevention et de la lutte contre la corruption], is created.

Article 167 The National Instance of Probity, of the Prevention and of the Struggle Against Corruption [Instance nationale de probite, de la prevention et de la lutte contre la corruption], created by virtue of Article 36, has for its mission[,] notably[,] to initiate, to coordinate, to supervise and to assure the following [suivi] of the implementation of the policies of prevention and of the struggle against corruption, to receive and to disseminate information in this domain, to contribute to the moral behavior of public life and to consolidate the principles of good governance, the culture of public service and the values of responsible citizenship.

[26]This text is copied from Afghanistan (2004).
[27]This text is copied from Egypt (2012).
[28]This text is copied from Morocco (2011).

SOUTH ASIA

Bhutan, 2008 Constitution[29].

Article 27. The Anti-Corruption Commission

1. There shall be an Anti-Corruption Commission, headed by a Chairperson and comprising two members, which shall be an independent authority and shall take necessary steps to prevent and combat corruption in the Kingdom.
2. The Chairperson and members of the Commission shall be appointed by the Druk Gyalpo from a list of names recommended jointly by the Prime Minister, the Chief Justice of Bhutan, the Speaker, the Chairperson of the National Council and the Leader of the Opposition Party.
3. The term of office of the Chairperson and members of the Commission shall be five years or until attaining the age of sixty-five years, whichever is earlier.
4. The Commission shall submit an Annual Report on its policies and performances to the Druk Gyalpo, the Prime Minister and Parliament.
5. Prosecution of individuals, parties or organizations on the basis of the findings of the Commission shall be undertaken expeditiously by the Office of the Attorney General for adjudication by the courts.
6. The Anti-Corruption Commission shall function in accordance with the Anti-Corruption Act.

Maldives, 2008 Constitution[30]

Part 5. ANTI-CORRUPTION COMMISSION

199. Anti-Corruption Commission

(a) There shall be an Anti-Corruption Commission of the Maldives.

(b) The Anti-Corruption Commission is an independent and impartial institution. It shall perform its duties and responsibilities in accordance with the Constitution and any laws enacted by the People's Majlis. The Anti-Corruption Commission shall work to prevent and combat corruption within all activities of the State without fear.

(c) The Anti-Corruption Commission shall function as provided for by the statute governing the Anti-Corruption Commission. Such statute shall specify the responsibilities, powers, mandate, qualifications, and ethical standards of members.

(d) The statute governing the Anti-Corruption Commission shall provide a definition of corruption.

200. Appointment and composition of the Anti-Corruption Commission

[29]The counter-corruption commission was originally proposed in 2005 via draft of this 2008 Constitution. This text is copied from Bhutan (2008)

[30]This text is copied from Maldives (2008).

(a) The Anti-Corruption Commission shall comprise of at least five members including the Chairman of the Commission.

(b) The President shall appoint to the Anti-Corruption Commission those persons approved by a majority of the members of the People's Majlis present and voting, from the names submitted to the People's Majlis as provided for in the statute governing the Anti-Corruption Commission.

201. Qualifications To be qualified for appointment to the Anti-Corruption Commission, a person shall possess the educational qualifications, experience and recognized competence necessary to discharge the functions of the Anti-Corruption Commission. Members of the Anti-Corruption Commission shall not engage in any other employment. **202. Responsibilities and powers** The Anti-Corruption Commission's responsibilities and powers include the following:

(a) to inquire into and investigate all allegations of corruption; any complaints, information, or suspicion of corruption must be investigated;

(b) to recommend further inquiries and investigations by other investigatory bodies, and to recommend prosecution of alleged offences to the Prosecutor General, where warranted;

(c) to carry out research on the prevention of corruption and to submit recommendations for improvement to relevant authorities regarding actions to be taken;

(d) to promote the values of honesty and integrity in the operations of the State, and to promote public awareness of the dangers of corruption;

(e) to perform any additional duties or functions specifically provided by law for the prevention of corruption.

203. Term of office of members of the Anti-Corruption Commission A member of the Anti-Corruption Commission shall be appointed for one term of five years. The People's Majlis can approve the renewal of the appointment for an additional term of not more than five years. **204. Resignation from the Anti-Corruption Commission** A member of the Anti-Corruption Commission may resign from office by writing under his hand addressed to the President, and the office shall become vacant when the resignation is received by the President. **205. Quorum and voting** A majority of the members of the Anti-Corruption Commission shall constitute a quorum at a meeting of the Anti-Corruption Commission, and any decision of the Anti-Corruption Commission shall be taken by a majority of votes of the members present and voting. **206. Salary and allowances** The members of the Anti-Corruption Commission shall be paid such salary and allowances as determined by the People's Majlis. **207. Removal from office** A member of the Anti-Corruption Commission shall be removed from office only for the reasons specified in article (a) and in the manner specified in article (b):

(a) on the ground of misconduct, incapacity or incompetence; and

(b) a finding to that effect by a committee of the People's Majlis pursuant to article (a), and upon the approval of such finding by the People's Majlis by a majority of those present and voting, calling for the member's removal from office, such member shall be deemed removed from office.

208. Oath of office Every member of the Anti-Corruption Commission shall take and subscribe the oath of office of members of the Anti-Corruption Commission set out in Schedule1of this Constitution before assuming office.

Nepal, 1990 Constitution[31]
Article 97
Commission for the Investigation of Abuse of Authority

1. There shall be a commission to be called the *Commission for the Investigation of Abuse of Authority of the Kingdom of Nepal* consisting of a Chief Commissioner and such other Commissioners as may be required. If, apart from the Chief Commissioner, other Commissioners are appointed, the Chief Commissioner shall act as Chairman of the Commission for the Investigation of Abuse of Authority.
2. His Majesty shall, on the recommendation of the Constitutional Council, appoint the Chief Commissioner and other Commissioners.
3. The term of office of the Chief Commissioner and other Commissioners shall be six years from the date of appointment. They shall be eligible for reappointment: Provided that: -
   (a) if, before the expiry of his term, the Chief Commissioner or a Commissioner attains the age of sixty-five, he shall retire; and
   (b) the Chief Commissioner or a Commissioner may be removed from his office on the same grounds and in the same manner as has been set forth for the removal of a Judge of the Supreme Court.
4. The office of the Chief Commissioner or a Commissioner shall be deemed vacant under the following circumstances:
   (a) if he dies; or
   (b) if his resignation submitted to His Majesty in writing is accepted by Him; or
   (c) if, pursuant to clause (3), his term expires or he is removed from his office.
5. No person shall be eligible to be appointed as the Chief Commissioner or a Commissioner unless he:
   (a) holds a Bachelor's Degree from a university recognised by His Majesty's Government;
   (b) is not a member of any political party immediately before appointment;
   (c) has at least ten years' experience in the field of either law, accounting, revenue, construction, development or research, and is a distinguished person; and
   (d) has attained the age of forty-five.
6. The remuneration and other conditions of service of the Chief Commissioner and the Commissioners shall be as determined by law. The remuneration and other conditions of service of the Chief Commissioner and the Commissioners shall not, so long as they hold office, be altered to their disadvantage.

[31] This text is copied from Nepal (1990).

7. A person once appointed as the Chief Commissioner or a Commissioner shall not be eligible for appointment in other Government Service: Provided that:-

   (a) nothing in this clause shall be deemed to be a bar to appointment of a Commissioner of the Commission for the Investigation of Abuse of Authority as its Chief Commissioner, and when a Commissioner is so appointed as the Chief Commissioner, his term of office shall be computed as to include his term as Commissioner; and

   (b) nothing in this clause shall be a bar to appointment to any position of a political nature, or to any position which has the responsibility of making investigations, inquiries or findings on any subject, or to any position which has the responsibility of submitting advice, opinions or recommendations after carrying out studies or research on any subject.

SUB-SAHARAN AFRICA

Central African Republic, 2016 Constitution[32]

Article 146
A High Authority responsible for Good Governance [Haute Autorité chargée de la Bonne Gouvernance] is instituted.

Article 147
The High Authority responsible for Good Governance is an institution independent of any political power, of any political party, of any association or of any pressure group.

Article 148
It sees to the equitable representation of all the regions of the Central African Republic within the public and parastatal [parapublic] institutions. It sees to proscribing any familial, clanish, patrimonial and partisan administration [gestion] of the public affairs [chose]. It sees equally to the protection of the rights of minorities, of the autochthonous peoples, of handicapped persons as well as of the principle of equality between men and women.

Article 149 The High Authority assures the protection of the national patrimony and transparency in the exploitation and the administration of natural resources. It sees to the equitable redistribution of the profits generated by natural resources. It may call the attention of the public powers in the domains arising within its competence and make appropriate proposals.

Article 150 Before the entry into [their] functions, the members of the High Authority responsible for Good Governance make, each in [regard] to what concerns him, a written declaration of [their] patrimony, deposited at the Office of the Constitutional Court, which renders it public within eight (8) working days. Within the thirty (30) days preceding the cessation of their functions, the members of the High Authority responsible for Good Governance renew, each in [regard] to what concerns him, the written declaration of their patrimony within the conditions specified in the paragraph above. An organic law determines the composition, the organization and the functioning of the High Authority responsible for Good Governance.

Eswatini, 2005 Constitution[33]

Part 2. Commission on Human Rights and Public Administration
163. Commission on Human Rights and Public Administration

1. There shall be established within a year of the first meeting of Parliament after the commencement of this Constitution, a Commission on Human Rights and Public Administration in this Chapter referred to as "the Commission".

[32]This text is copied from CAF (2016).
[33]This text is copied from Eswatini (2005).

2. The Commission shall consist of -
   (a) a Commissioner for Human Rights and Public Administration; and
   (b) at least two Deputy Commissioners for Human Rights and Public Administration as may be necessary for the effective discharge of the functions of the Commission.
3. The members of the Commission shall be appointed by the King on the advice of the Judicial Service Commission.
4. Subject to subsection (5) (a), a person shall not qualify for appointment as Commissioner unless that person qualifies for appointment as judge of the superior courts.
5. A person shall not be eligible for appointment as Deputy Commissioner unless that person –
   (a) is of high moral character and proven integrity; and
   (b) possesses considerable experience and demonstrated competence in the conduct of public affairs; or
   (c) is of high calibre in the conduct of public affairs.
6. The first persons to be appointed Commissioner and Deputy Commissioner shall hold office for a term not exceeding seven years and five years respectively and may be re-appointed for a single term of five years each.
7. A person appointed subsequent to the first appointment as Commissioner or Deputy Commissioner respectively shall hold office for a term not exceeding five years and may be re-appointed for a single term.

164. Functions of the Commission

1. The Commission shall perform the following functions –
   (a) investigate complaints concerning alleged violations of fundamental rights and freedoms under this Constitution;
   (b) investigate complaints of injustice, corruption, abuse of power in office and unfair treatment of any person by a public officer in the exercise of official duties;
   (c) investigate complaints concerning the functioning of any public service, service commission, administrative organ of the Government, the Armed Forces in so far as the complaints relate to the failure to achieve acceptable delivery of services or equitable access by all in the recruitment to those services or fair administration by those services;
   (d) take appropriate action for the remedying, correction or reversal of instances specified in paragraphs (a), (b) and (c) through such means as are fair, proper and effective, including -
      i. publicising the findings and recommendations of the Commission;
      ii. negotiation and compromise between the parties concerned;
      iii. causing the complaint and the findings of the Commission on that complaint to be reported to the superior of an offending person or institution;
      iv. referring matters to the Director of Public Prosecutions or the Attorney General for appropriate action to secure the termination of the

offending action or conduct, or the abandonment or alteration of the offending procedures; and

v. bringing proceedings to restrain the enforcement of any legislation or regulation by challenging the validity of that legislation or regulation where the offending action or conduct is sought to be justified by reference to that legislation or regulation.

(e) investigate instances of alleged or suspected corruption and the misappropriation of public moneys or property by officials and to take or recommend appropriate steps, including reports to the Attorney-General or the Director of Public Prosecutions or the Auditor General;

(f) eliminate or foster the elimination of corruption, abuse of authority or public office;

(g) promote and foster strict adherence to the rule of law and principles of natural justice in public administration;

(h) promote fair, efficient and good governance in public affairs;

(i) take such other measures incidental to the above as may be prescribed by Parliament.

2. The Commission may investigate any matter referred to in subsection (1) in any of the following circumstances –

(a) where a complaint is duly made to the Commission by any person alleging that the complainant has sustained an injustice as a result of a fault in administration;

(b) where a member of Parliament requests the Commission to investigate the matter on the ground that a person or body of persons specified in the request has or may have sustained an injustice;

(c) in any other circumstances in which the Commissioner, in good faith, considers that the Commission ought to investigate the matter on the ground that some person or body of persons has or may have sustained an injustice.

165. Powers of the Commission

1. The powers of the Commission shall include the following –

(a) to issue subpoenas requiring the attendance of any person before the Commission and the production of any document, record or thing required for the investigation by the Commission;

(b) to fine any person for contempt of any subpoena or order, or cause that person to be brought by a competent court for the enforcement of the subpoena or order of the Commission;

(c) to question any person in respect of any subject matter under investigation before the Commission;

(d) to require any person to disclose truthfully and frankly any information within the knowledge of that person relevant to any investigation by the Commission.

2. The Commission may during the course of its proceedings or as a consequence of its findings, make such orders and give such directions as are necessary and appropriate in the circumstances.

3. The Commission shall not investigate –
   (a) a matter which is pending before a court;
   (b) a matter involving the relations or dealings between the Government and any other Government or an international organisation; or
   (c) a matter relating to the exercise of any royal prerogative by the Crown.
4. Subject to the provisions of subsection (3) the Commission may investigate an authority that has been established to investigate a matter where in the opinion of the Commissioner the authority is failing to carry out its mandate with due speed.

166. Independence of the Commission The Commission shall be independent in the performance of its functions and shall not be subject to the direction or control of any person or authority.

167. Discretion of Commissioner In determining whether to initiate, continue or discontinue an investigation, the Commissioner shall exercise discretion and in particular and without prejudice to the generality of that discretion, the Commissioner may refuse to initiate or continue an investigation where it appears that -

   (a) the complaint relates to action of which the complainant had knowledge for more than twelve months before the complaint was received by the Commission;
   (b) the subject matter of the complaint is trivial, frivolous, vexatious or is not made in good faith; or
   (c) the complainant has not a sufficient interest in the subject matter of the complaint, unless justified in terms of section 164 (2) (c).

168. Report of investigation

1. Where a complaint, or request for an investigation, is duly made and the Commissioner decides not to investigate the matter or where the Commissioner decides to discontinue an investigation of the matter, the Commissioner shall inform the person who made the complaint or request of the reasons for not investigating or for discontinuing the investigation.
2. The Commission may, where necessary, issue an interim report containing such recommendations as it may deem appropriate in the circumstances.
3. The Commission shall, upon completion of an investigation inform the public officer, person, private enterprise or institution of the findings in writing.
4. Upon the completion of an investigation the Commissioner shall inform the department of Government or the authority concerned of the results of the investigation and where the Commissioner is of the opinion that any person has sustained an injustice in consequence of a fault in administration, the Commissioner shall inform the department of Government or the authority of the reasons for the opinion and make such recommendations as the Commissioner thinks fit.
5. The Commission may in the interim report, or in the final report, specify the time within which the injustice should be remedied.
6. Where the investigation is undertaken as a result of a complaint or request, the Commissioner shall inform the person who made the complaint or request of the findings.

7. Where the matter in the opinion of the Commissioner is of sufficient public importance or where the Commissioner has made a recommendation under subsection (4) or (5) and within the time specified by the Commissioner no sufficient action has been taken to remedy the injustice, or terminate the offensive conduct then, subject to such provision as may be made by Parliament, the Commission shall lay a special report on the case before Parliament.
8. The Commissioner shall make annual reports to Parliament on the performance of the Commission which reports shall include statistics in such form and in such detail as may be prescribed of the complaints received by the Commission and the results of any investigation.

169. Restrictions on matters for investigation The Commission shall not, in investigating any matter leading to, resulting from or connected with the decision of a Minister, inquire into or question the policy of the Government in accordance with which the decision was made.

170. Vacation of office and immunity of Commissioners

1. The provision of this Constitution relating to the removal of judges of the superior courts from office shall, subject to any necessary modifications and adaptations, apply to the removal from office of the Commissioner or Deputy Commissioner.
2. A member of the Commission shall have such and like protection and privilege in the case of any action or suit brought against the Commission for any act done or omitted to be done in the honest execution of the duties of the Commission as is by law given to acts done or words spoken by a judge of the superior courts in exercise of the judicial office.

171. Staff and expenses of the Commission

1. The Commission shall have such staff as shall be appropriate for the effective discharge of the functions of the Commission.
2. Administrative expenses of the Commission including salaries, allowances and pensions payable to, or in respect of, persons serving with the Commission, shall be charged on the Consolidated Fund.

Kenya, 2010 Constitution[34]

79. Legislation to establish the ethics and anti-corruption commission Parliament shall enact legislation to establish an independent ethics and anti-corruption commission, which shall be and have the status and powers of a commission under Chapter Fifteen, for purposes of ensuring compliance with, and enforcement of, the provisions of this Chapter.

Zambia, 1973 Constitution

Constitutional text for the 1973 anti-corruption provision is not available to the authors.

[34]This text is copied from Kenya (2010).

Zambia, 1991 Constitution (Revised in 2016)[35]

Article 235. Investigative Commissions There is established the following investigative commissions:

1. the Anti-Corruption Commission;
2. the Drug Enforcement Commission; and
3. the Anti-Financial and Economic Crimes Commission.

Zimbabwe, 2013 Constitution[36]

Part 1: Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission
Article 254. Establishment and Composition of Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission

1. There is a commission to be known as the Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission consisting of—
   (a) a chairperson appointed by the President after consultation with the Committee on Standing Rules and Orders; and
   (b) eight other members appointed by the President from a list of not fewer than twelve nominees submitted by the Committee on Standing Rules and Orders.
2. Members of the Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission must be chosen for their integrity and their knowledge of and experience in administration or the prosecution or investigation of crime or for their general suitability for appointment, and—
   (a) at least one must be qualified to practise as a legal practitioner in Zimbabwe, and have been so qualified for at least seven years;
   (b) at least one must be qualified to practise as a public accountant or public auditor in Zimbabwe, and have been so qualified for at least seven years; and
   (c) at least one must be a person with at least ten years' experience in the investigation of crime.

Article 255. Functions of Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission

1. The Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission has the following functions—
   (a) to investigate and expose cases of corruption in the public and private sectors;
   (b) to combat corruption, theft, misappropriation, abuse of power and other improper conduct in the public and private sectors;
   (c) to promote honesty, financial discipline and transparency in the public and private sectors;
   (d) to receive and consider complaints from the public and to take such action in regard to the complaints as it considers appropriate;
   (e) to direct the Commissioner-General of Police to investigate cases of suspected corruption and to report to the Commission on the results of any such investigation;

[35]This text is copied from Zambia (1991).
[36]This text is copied from Zimbabwe (2013).

(f) to refer matters to the National Prosecuting Authority for prosecution;

(g) to require assistance from members of the Police Service and other investigative agencies of the State; and

(h) to make recommendations to the Government and other persons on measures to enhance integrity and accountability and prevent improper conduct in the public and private sectors.

2. The Commissioner-General of Police must comply with any directive given to him or her by the Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission under subsection (1)(e).

3. The Government must ensure, through legislative and other means, that the Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission has power to recommend the arrest and secure the prosecution of persons reasonably suspected of corruption, abuse of power and other improper conduct which falls within the Commission's jurisdiction.

Article 256. Application of Certain Provisions of Chapter 12 to Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission

Sections 234, 235, 236 and 237 apply to the Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission and its members as if it were an independent Commission established by Chapter 12.

Article 257. Reports by Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission

In addition to the report it is required to submit in terms of section 323, the Zimbabwe Anti-Corruption Commission may, through the appropriate Minister, submit reports to Parliament on particular matters relating to improper conduct in the public and private sectors which, in the Commission's opinion, should be brought to the attention of Parliament.